

Indian Traditions, Culture and Society

- India is a diverse country with a rich and varied heritage of languages, religions, arts, cuisines, philosophies, and customs.
- India's culture and traditions are influenced by its ancient history, geography, and various invasions and migrations over the centuries.
- Some of the main aspects of Indian culture and traditions are:
 - **Arts and Language:** India has a long tradition of literature, music, dance, painting, sculpture, and architecture. India has 22 official languages and hundreds of regional languages and dialects. The most ancient language of India is Sanskrit, which is the source of many Indo-European languages. India also has a vibrant tradition of folk and tribal arts, such as puppetry, pottery, embroidery, and weaving.
 - **Philosophy and Religion:** India is the birthplace of four major world religions: Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Sikhism. India also has a significant population of Muslims, Christians, Sikhs, Parsis, Jews, and others. India's philosophical traditions include Vedanta, Yoga, Sankhya, Nyaya, Mimamsa, and others. India's religious and philosophical diversity has fostered a culture of tolerance, pluralism, and syncretism.
 - **Food and Drink:** India's cuisine is diverse and regional, reflecting the local ingredients, climate, and culture. India's food is known for its use of spices, herbs, grains, pulses, dairy, and vegetables. India also has a variety of beverages, such as tea, coffee, lassi, sherbet, and toddy. India's food and drink also have religious and cultural significance, such as fasting, feasting, offering, and sharing.
 - **Society and Customs:** India's society is complex and hierarchical, based on factors such as caste, class, gender, religion, ethnicity, and region. India's customs and rituals vary widely, but some common ones include greeting with a namaste, respecting elders, celebrating festivals, wearing traditional attire, and following etiquette. India's society and customs also reflect the values of family, community, hospitality, and generosity.

Module 1- Society State and Polity in India

- This module aims to provide an overview of the historical and contemporary aspects of the society, state and polity in India.
- Society refers to the network of social relationships, institutions, norms and values that shape the collective life of a group of people.
- State refers to the political organization that exercises sovereign authority over a defined territory and population.

- Polity refers to the system of governance, laws, policies and institutions that regulate the state and society.
- The module will cover the following topics:
 - The origins and evolution of the Indian state and polity from ancient to modern times, highlighting the diversity and continuity of political traditions and cultures.
 - The constitutional framework and the institutional structure of the Indian state and polity, including the role of the executive, legislature, judiciary, bureaucracy, media and civil society.
 - The major challenges and issues facing the Indian state and polity, such as federalism, secularism, democracy, development, social justice, human rights, corruption, violence and security.
 - The external and internal factors that influence the Indian state and polity, such as globalization, regionalism, nationalism, communalism, casteism, gender and class.
 - The comparative and analytical perspectives on the Indian state and polity, drawing from the theories and concepts of political science and sociology.
- The module will enable the students to:
 - Understand the historical and contemporary context of the Indian state and polity.
 - Analyze the strengths and weaknesses of the Indian state and polity.
 - Evaluate the performance and outcomes of the Indian state and polity.
 - Critically engage with the debates and controversies surrounding the Indian state and polity.
 - Develop a nuanced and informed opinion on the Indian state and polity.

State in Ancient India

- The state in ancient India was a social organization with political power that ensured peace, order and happiness.
- The origin of the state in ancient India is not clear, but there are three main theories: social contract theory, divine origin theory and organic theory.
- Social contract theory: This theory suggests that the state was formed by a voluntary agreement among the people to surrender some of their rights and freedoms to a ruler or a group of rulers in exchange for protection and welfare.
- Divine origin theory: This theory claims that the state was created by God or gods and that the ruler or the group of rulers had divine sanction or authority to govern the people.

- Organic theory: This theory holds that the state was a natural and inevitable outcome of the growth and development of human society and that the ruler or the group of rulers represented the collective will or interest of the people.
- The types of states in ancient India were loosely categorized into monarchy, republic and oligarchy.
- Monarchy: This was the most prevalent type of state in ancient India, where the king was the supreme authority and the source of power for the ministers, governors, village councils, town councils and trade guilds . The king was usually hereditary, but sometimes elected or appointed by the people or the nobility. The king was assisted by a council of ministers, who advised him on various matters of administration, law, finance, defense and religion.
- Republic: This was a type of state where the people or their representatives had a direct role in the governance and decision-making. The republics were usually formed by clans, tribes or groups of people who shared a common ancestry, territory or occupation. The republics had a chief or a president, who was elected by the people or the assembly of elders, and who acted as the head of the state and the commander of the army. The republics also had a council of elders or a senate, who assisted the chief or the president in the administration and legislation.
- Oligarchy: This was a type of state where the power was concentrated in the hands of a few individuals or a class of people, such as the nobility, the wealthy or the priests. The oligarchs ruled over the majority of the people, who had little or no say in the affairs of the state. The oligarchs were often oppressive and exploitative, and faced resistance and revolt from the people.
- The earliest known state in ancient India was the Indus Valley Civilization, which flourished from 3300 BCE to 1300 BCE in the regions of modern-day Pakistan and northwest India . The Indus Valley Civilization had a highly developed urban culture, with planned cities, standardized weights and measures, seal carving, metallurgy, trade, writing and sanitation. The Indus Valley Civilization had a centralized administration, but the nature and extent of its political system is not well understood .
- The later states in ancient India were influenced by the Vedic culture, which emerged around 1500 BCE in the northwest of the subcontinent. The Vedic culture was based on the religious and philosophical texts known as the Vedas, which laid down the social, moral and ritual norms for the people. The Vedic culture was dominated by the Brahmins (priests), the Kshatriyas (warriors), the Vaishyas (merchants) and the Shudras (servants), who formed the four varnas or classes of the society. The Vedic culture also gave rise to the concept of dharma (duty), karma (action) and moksha (liberation), which shaped the worldview and ethics of the people.
- The major states in ancient India that emerged after the Vedic period were the Mahajanapadas (great kingdoms), the Mauryan Empire, the Kushan Empire, the Gupta Empire, the Harsha Empire, the Chola Empire, the

Pallava Empire, the Rashtrakuta Empire, the Pala Empire, the Chalukya Empire, the Pratihara Empire, the Chahamanas (Chauhans) Empire, the Delhi Sultanate and the Vijayanagara Empire. These states varied in their size, duration, culture, religion, economy, administration and military strength, but

Theories of origin of State in India

The origin of state in India is a subject of debate among scholars of political science and history. There are different theories that attempt to explain how the state emerged and evolved in ancient India. Some of the prominent theories are:

- **Social Contract Theory:** This theory holds that the state was formed by a voluntary agreement among individuals who gave up some of their natural rights and freedoms in exchange for security and order. The state was seen as a human creation that could be changed or abolished by the consent of the people. This theory is found in some of the ancient Indian texts such as the Mahabharata, the Arthashastra and the Manusmriti .
- **Divine Origin Theory:** This theory asserts that the state was established by the will of God or gods who chose a king or a dynasty to rule over the people. The king was considered as the representative or the incarnation of the divine power and had the right to rule by virtue of his birth or consecration. The state was seen as a sacred institution that could not be questioned or challenged by the people. This theory is found in some of the ancient Indian texts such as the Vedas, the Ramayana and the Puranas .
- **Organic Theory:** This theory suggests that the state was a natural and inevitable outcome of the social and economic development of the human society. The state was seen as a living organism that grew and changed according to the needs and aspirations of the people. The state was not a product of any contract or divine intervention, but a result of the historical and cultural evolution of the human civilization. This theory is found in some of the ancient Indian texts such as the Upanishads, the Dharmashastras and the Buddhist scriptures .

Evolutionary Theory of origin of State

- The Evolutionary Theory of origin of State is the theory that explains the state as the product of historical and social evolution over a long period of time .
- According to this theory, the state is not a sudden or artificial creation, but a natural and gradual development of human society from simple to complex forms of organization .
- The Evolutionary Theory traces the origin of the state from the primitive stages of human society, such as the family, the clan, the tribe, the village,

the city, and the nation, and shows how these units gradually merged or integrated into larger and more centralized political entities .

- The Evolutionary Theory also identifies the factors and forces that influenced the formation and evolution of the state, such as population growth, economic development, social differentiation, cultural diffusion, warfare, religion, law, and ideology .
- The Evolutionary Theory is regarded as the most scientific and convincing theory of origin of the state, as it is based on empirical evidence, historical records, and comparative analysis of different types of states and societies .
- The Evolutionary Theory also helps to understand the diversity and complexity of the modern state, as well as the challenges and opportunities for its further development and transformation .

Force Theory of Origin of State

- This theory proposes that the origin of state is developed through the use of force.
- One person or a small group of people claim control over the population in a specific area by force .
- Once the rule is well established, the state is established.
- This theory is generally a result of war.
- Force is an essential element of the state.
- Some of the greatest empires of today have been established through blood and iron.
- The idea contained in the statement is that ‘war begat the king’.
- The force theory of government has been advanced by a number of thinkers for a variety of purposes.
- The ancient Greek sophist, Plato, for instance, advanced the view that justice is whatever is in the interest of the stronger.
- The German philosopher, Friedrich Nietzsche, also advocated the idea of the will to power as the driving force of human history.
- The force theory of government is often criticized for being simplistic, unrealistic, and immoral.
- It does not account for the role of consent, cooperation, and social contract in the formation of the state.
- It also ignores the diversity and complexity of human societies and cultures.
- It also implies that the state is based on violence and oppression, and that might makes right.

Mystical Theory of Origin of State

- The mystical theory of origin of state is also known as the **divine origin theory** or the **theory of divine right of kings**.
- The exponents of this theory believe that the state did not come into being

by any effort of man, but it was **created by God**.

- The king who rules over the state is an **agent of God** on earth and has absolute authority and legitimacy .
- The people have no right to question, resist or overthrow the king, as he is accountable only to God .
- The main supporters of this theory were **Plato, Aristotle, Augustine, Aquinas, Bossuet, Filmer** and others .
- The theory was popular in the **ancient and medieval times**, especially in Europe and Asia, where many kings claimed to have divine sanction for their rule .
- The theory was challenged by the **renaissance, reformation, enlightenment** and the **rise of democracy**, which emphasized the role of human reason, natural rights, social contract and popular sovereignty in the origin and legitimacy of the state .
- The theory is now **rejected** by most modern political thinkers as unscientific, irrational, undemocratic and oppressive .

Contract Theory of Origin of State

- The contract theory of origin of state is a theory that explains how the state or the society emerged from a voluntary agreement or contract among individuals or groups of people.
- The theory assumes that there was a pre-social and pre-political condition called the state of nature, where people lived in natural freedom and equality, but also faced insecurity and uncertainty due to the absence of any authority or law.
- The theory argues that people decided to enter into a social contract to escape the state of nature and to establish a common authority that would protect their rights and interests, and enforce the rules of the contract.
- The theory has different versions and variations, depending on the views of different thinkers and philosophers who proposed it. Some of the most influential proponents of the theory are Thomas Hobbes, John Locke, Jean-Jacques Rousseau, and Immanuel Kant.
- The theory has been criticized for its historical and empirical validity, its moral and political implications, and its logical and conceptual consistency. Some of the critics of the theory are David Hume, Edmund Burke, Karl Marx, and John Rawls.

Stages of State Formation in Ancient India

The state is a political institution that exercises authority and control over a territory and its people. The origin and evolution of the state in ancient India is a complex and debated topic, as different sources and theories provide different perspectives and interpretations. However, some general stages of state formation can be identified based on the available evidence and analysis.

- The first stage of state formation in ancient India is the emergence of

tribal polities or **chiefdoms** in the late Vedic period (c. 1000-600 BCE). These were based on kinship, clan, and village ties, and were led by chiefs or rajas who had limited power and authority. They often engaged in warfare and alliances with other tribes for resources and prestige. Some examples of tribal polities are the Kurus, Panchalas, Kosalas, and Videhas in the Gangetic plains, and the Cholas, Cheras, and Pandyas in the south.

- The second stage of state formation in ancient India is the rise of **territorial states** or **janapadas** in the mid-first millennium BCE. These were larger and more centralized polities that expanded their territories through conquest and colonization. They had more complex administrative, military, and economic systems, and were ruled by kings or maharajas who claimed divine or heroic ancestry. They also developed urban centers, coinage, and writing systems. Some examples of territorial states are the Magadha, Kosala, Vatsa, and Avanti in the north, and the Satavahana, Chola, and Pallava in the south.
- The third stage of state formation in ancient India is the emergence of **imperial states** or **mahajanapadas** in the late first millennium BCE and early first millennium CE. These were the largest and most powerful polities that unified most of the Indian subcontinent under a single rule. They had elaborate bureaucracies, armies, and tax systems, and patronized art, literature, and religion. They also established diplomatic and trade relations with other regions and civilizations. Some examples of imperial states are the Mauryan, Gupta, Harsha, and Kushan empires in the north, and the Chola, Chalukya, and Rashtrakuta empires in the south.

These stages of state formation in ancient India are not rigid or linear, as there were variations, overlaps, and transitions between them. Moreover, there were also other forms of political organization, such as republics, confederations, and feudal states, that coexisted or competed with the states. Therefore, the study of state formation in ancient India requires a nuanced and contextualized approach that takes into account the diversity and dynamism of the historical processes and sources.

Kingship in states in Ancient India

- Kingship in ancient India was a sovereignty over a territory by a king who functioned as its protector, a role which involved both secular and religious power.
- Ancient Indians believed that kingship arose out of military requirement. A king must be a capable general whose leadership is recognized by all.
- There were three main theories of origin of kingship and state in ancient India: divine origin theory, social contract theory, and patriarchal theory.
- Divine origin theory: This theory of origin of kingship as well as the state was not widely acclaimed in the ancient Indian polity. The king, according to this theory, was a subordinate to law, which was made by the society and not him.

- Social contract theory: This theory of origin of kingship as well as the state was more popular in the ancient Indian polity. The king, according to this theory, was a representative of the people who had voluntarily surrendered some of their rights and powers to him for the sake of security and welfare.
- Patriarchal theory: This theory of origin of kingship as well as the state was based on the assumption that the king was the eldest male member of the clan or tribe who had the authority to rule over his kinsmen.
- The ideology and symbolism of kingship have played an important role in Hinduism throughout its history, an influence that continues into the present day. The two great epic texts, the Mahābhārata and Rāmāyaṇa, are narratives of kingship, and the tensions and ambiguities inherent to the role of the king are fundamental to their plots and themes.
- The Brahmanic theory of kingship was based on the concept of dharma, or the cosmic order, which the king had to uphold and protect. The king was seen as a manifestation of the divine, and his coronation was a ritual of consecration that conferred him with sacred power.
- The Buddhist and Jain theories of kingship were more critical of the violence and oppression associated with kingship, and advocated for a more ethical and compassionate rule. The king was seen as a benefactor of the people, and his duty was to promote the welfare and happiness of his subjects.

Council of Ministers in Ancient India

- The council of ministers was a group of advisers and administrators who assisted the king in governing the state.
- The council of ministers was known by different names, such as Mantri-parīṣad, Mantri-maṇḍala, or Mantri-gaṇa .
- The council of ministers was composed of various types of ministers, such as the Prime Minister (Mantrimukhya or Mahāmantri), the Chief Justice (Prādhyāpaka or Prādhyakṣa), the Treasurer (Sannidhāta or Kośādhyakṣa), the Commander-in-Chief (Senāpati or Senānī), the Foreign Minister (Dūta or Dūtādhyakṣa), and others.
- The council of ministers was selected by the king based on their qualifications, character, and loyalty. They were expected to be well-versed in the scriptures, law, politics, diplomacy, and military affairs. They were also expected to be honest, impartial, courageous, and devoted to the king and the welfare of the people .
- The council of ministers had various functions and powers, such as advising the king on important matters, executing the king's orders, administering justice, collecting revenue, maintaining security, conducting foreign relations, and supervising various departments and officials.
- The council of ministers was not a fixed or permanent body, but rather a flexible and dynamic one. The king could appoint, dismiss, or replace any minister at his will. The king could also consult the council of ministers

collectively or individually, depending on the situation and his preference.

Administration in Ancient India

- Administration in ancient India refers to the structures, procedures and behaviors that the ruling dynasties or emperors used to govern their respective territories and people.
- Administration in ancient India can be divided into four main periods: the Indus Valley civilization, the Vedic period, the classical period and the medieval period.
- The Indus Valley civilization (2500-1500 BCE) was one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world. It had a well-organized administration based on a centralized authority, urban planning, standardization of weights and measures, taxation, trade and commerce, and public works. The king was the head of the administration, assisted by ministers and councillors. The cities of Mohenjodaro and Harappa were the main administrative centers of this civilization.
- The Vedic period (1500-600 BCE) was the period of the Indo-Aryan migration and settlement in the Indian subcontinent. It was characterized by the emergence of the Vedic literature, which laid down the principles of social, political and religious life. The administration in this period was based on the concept of varna (social classes) and ashrama (stages of life). The king was the supreme authority, but he was bound by the dharma (duty) and the advice of the brahmins (priests). The king was also assisted by the sabha (assembly) and the samiti (council) of the people. The territory of the king was divided into janapadas (kingdoms) and gramas (villages).
- The classical period (600 BCE-1200 CE) was the period of the rise and fall of various empires and kingdoms in India, such as the Mauryan, the Gupta, the Kushan, the Satavahana, the Chola, the Pallava, the Pala, the Rashtrakuta, the Chalukya, the Pratihara, the Chahamana, and the Sena. It was also the period of the development of various schools of philosophy, art, literature, science, mathematics, astronomy, medicine, and law. The administration in this period was influenced by the Arthashastra, a treatise on statecraft and governance written by Kautilya, the prime minister of the Mauryan emperor Chandragupta. The administration in this period was based on the concept of saptanga (seven limbs) of the state, namely the king, the minister, the territory, the fort, the treasury, the army, and the ally. The king was the central authority, but he was guided by the dharma and the shastras (scriptures). The king was also assisted by various officials, such as the amatya (minister), the senapati (general), the adhyaksha (superintendent), the rajjuka (surveyor), the dandapala (police officer), and the yukta (collector). The territory of the king was divided into provinces and districts, known by different names such as pradesha, bhukti, mandala, rashtra, vishaya, and ahara. The provinces and districts were further subdivided into villages and towns, which had their own local

administration and self-government .

- The medieval period (1200-1700 CE) was the period of the invasion and rule of various foreign dynasties and empires in India, such as the Delhi Sultanate, the Vijayanagara Empire, the Bahmani Sultanate, the Mughal Empire, the Maratha Empire, and the Sikh Empire. It was also the period of the growth of various regional languages, cultures, religions, and movements. The administration in this period was influenced by the Islamic law and customs, as well as the indigenous traditions and practices. The administration in this period was based on the concept of the sultan (king), the wazir (prime minister), the diwan (department), the suba (province), the sarkar (district), the pargana (sub-district), and the qasba (town). The sultan was the supreme authority, but he was accountable to the sharia (Islamic law) and the ulama (religious scholars). The sultan was also assisted by various officials, such as the amir (noble), the muqti (governor), the shiqdar (district officer), the kotwal (city officer), the patwari (village officer), and the karkun (clerk)

Political Ideals in Ancient India and their relevance in modern times

- Ancient India had a rich tradition of political thought and practice that spanned from the Vedic period to the medieval period.
- Some of the political ideals that emerged from this tradition are:
 - Democracy: The Rig Veda, the oldest of the four Vedas, advocated the principle of **samjnana**, which means the collective consciousness or will of the people. The Rig Veda also described the **sabha** and the **samiti**, two assemblies that represented the people and participated in decision-making. The sabha was a smaller council of elders, while the samiti was a larger assembly of all the members of the tribe. The sabha and the samiti elected the king, who was accountable to them and had to follow the **dharma**, or the moral law. The king was also assisted by a group of ministers, called the **ratnin**, who advised him on various matters. Democracy in ancient India was not based on universal suffrage, but on the principle of **consensus** among the people.
 - Monarchy: Monarchy was another popular form of government in ancient India, especially after the rise of the Magadha empire in the 6th century BCE. Monarchy was based on the concept of **divine right**, which means that the king was chosen by the gods and had supreme authority over his subjects. The king was also considered to be the **protector** of the people, the **upholder** of the dharma, and the **performer** of the sacrifices. The king was expected to rule with justice, benevolence, and wisdom, and to follow the advice of his ministers, priests, and elders. The king was also bound by the **dandaniti**, or the science of politics, which prescribed the rules and duties of the

king and the state. The dandaniti was based on the **arthasastra**, or the treatise on wealth and power, which was written by Kautilya, the prime minister of Chandragupta Maurya, the founder of the Mauryan empire. The arthasastra was a comprehensive manual of statecraft, which covered topics such as administration, taxation, law, diplomacy, war, espionage, and welfare .

- Caste: Caste was a social and political institution that divided the society into four main groups, or **varnas**, based on their occupation and birth. The four varnas were the **brahmins** (priests and teachers), the **kshatriyas** (warriors and rulers), the **vaishyas** (merchants and farmers), and the **shudras** (servants and laborers). The caste system was justified by the **purusha sukta**, a hymn in the Rig Veda, which described the creation of the world and the varnas from the body of a cosmic being, called the **purusha**. The caste system was also supported by the **law of karma**, which means that one's actions in the present life determine one's status in the next life. The caste system was a rigid and hierarchical system that determined one's rights, duties, privileges, and obligations in the society. The caste system also influenced the political system, as the brahmins and the kshatriyas were the dominant groups that controlled the religious and secular affairs of the state .
- The relevance of these political ideals in modern times can be seen in the following ways:
 - Democracy: Democracy is the most widely accepted and practiced form of government in the modern world. Democracy is based on the principles of **equality**, **freedom**, **representation**, and **participation** of the people in the political process. Democracy also ensures the **accountability**, **transparency**, and **responsiveness** of the government to the people. Democracy in modern times is based on universal suffrage, which means that every adult citizen has the right to vote and stand for elections. Democracy in modern times also involves the **separation of powers**, which means that the executive, the legislature, and the judiciary are independent and check and balance each other. Democracy in modern times also recognizes the **pluralism** and **diversity** of the society, and respects the **rights** and **interests** of the minorities and the marginalized groups. Democracy in modern times is influenced by the ancient Indian ideals of samjnana, sabha, samiti, and dharma, but

Conditions of the Welfare of Societies in Ancient India

- The concept of social welfare in ancient India was based on the idea of **duty** as opposed to **rights** . Duty was derived from the notion of **dharma**, which meant the moral and ethical order of the universe, as well as the

individual and social obligations that followed from it .

- Dharma was not a fixed or rigid code of conduct, but a dynamic and contextual principle that varied according to time, place, circumstance, and person . Dharma was also not imposed by any external authority, but was self-regulated by the individual and the community through conscience, reason, and tradition .
- Dharma was the basis of the **varna-system**, which divided the society into four broad categories: **Brahmins** (priests and teachers), **Kshatriyas** (warriors and rulers), **Vaishyas** (merchants and farmers), and **Shudras** (servants and laborers) . Each varna had its own specific duties and responsibilities, as well as rights and privileges, according to their respective roles and functions in the society .
- Dharma was also the basis of the **ashramas**, which divided the life of an individual into four stages: **Brahmacharya** (student), **Grihastha** (householder), **Vanaprastha** (retiree), and **Sannyasa** (renunciant) . Each ashrama had its own rules and regulations, as well as goals and aspirations, according to the age and maturity of the individual .
- Dharma was also the basis of the **sanskaras**, which were the rites and ceremonies that marked the important events and transitions in the life of an individual, such as birth, initiation, marriage, death, etc. . Each sanskara had its own significance and symbolism, as well as benefits and blessings, according to the spiritual and social needs of the individual .
- Dharma was also the basis of the **family**, which was the basic unit of the society and the source of social and moral values . The family was a joint and patriarchal system, where the elders had the authority and the responsibility to guide and protect the younger members, and the younger members had the duty and the respect to obey and serve the elders .
- Dharma was also the basis of the **marriage**, which was a sacred and life-long bond between a man and a woman, based on mutual love, trust, and fidelity . The marriage was not only a personal and emotional relationship, but also a social and religious obligation, as it ensured the continuity of the family and the society .
- Dharma was also the basis of the **position of women**, which was generally subordinate and dependent on men, but also respected and honored for their roles as mothers, wives, and daughters . Women had the right to education, property, and inheritance, but also the duty to follow the norms and customs of their families and communities .
- Dharma was also the basis of the **dresses and ornaments**, which were the expressions of the culture and identity of the people, as well as the indicators of their status and wealth . The dresses and ornaments varied according to the region, climate, occupation, and occasion, but also followed the rules and regulations of the dharma .
- Dharma was also the basis of the **food habits**, which were the reflections of the health and hygiene of the people, as well as the influences of the environment and the religion . The food habits varied according to the taste, preference, and availability, but also followed the rules and regula-

tions of the dharma, such as the prohibition of meat and alcohol for some groups .

- Dharma was also the basis of the **amusements and entertainments**, which were the sources of joy and relaxation for the people, as

The Seven Limbs of the State in Ancient India

- The seven limbs of the state (saptanga) were formulated by Kautilya, a political thinker and advisor to the Mauryan emperor Chandragupta, in his treatise Arthashastra, which deals with the art of governance and statecraft .
- The seven limbs are:
 - Swamin (the king): The king is the head of the state and the source of authority. He is responsible for the peace, justice and stability of the state. He should be virtuous, intelligent, courageous and benevolent .
 - Amatya (the minister): The minister is the chief advisor and assistant to the king. He should be loyal, competent, experienced and well-versed in the affairs of the state. He should help the king in policy-making, administration and diplomacy .
 - Janapada (the land and the people): The land and the people are the basis of the state's wealth and power. The land should be fertile, well-cultivated and protected from enemies. The people should be happy, prosperous, loyal and obedient to the king .
 - Durga (the fortress): The fortress is the defensive structure of the state. It should be strong, well-fortified and strategically located. It should provide shelter and security to the king, the minister, the army and the people in times of war or emergency .
 - Kosha (the treasury): The treasury is the financial resource of the state. It should be well-stocked, well-managed and well-spent. It should provide funds for the maintenance of the state, the welfare of the people, the expansion of the territory and the promotion of the arts and sciences .
 - Danda (the army and the coercive authority): The army and the coercive authority are the instruments of the state's power and order. The army should be well-trained, well-equipped and well-disciplined. It should defend the state from external threats and enforce the king's laws and commands. The coercive authority should be fair, impartial and effective. It should punish the wrongdoers and protect the innocent .
 - Mitra (the ally): The ally is the external support of the state. He should be friendly, reliable and helpful. He should share the state's interests, values and goals. He should assist the state in war and peace, in trade and culture .
- According to Kautilya, the state should maintain a balance and harmony among the seven limbs. The state should also strive to improve the quality

and excellence of each limb. The state that has the best combination of the seven limbs is the ideal state and the most powerful state .

Society in Ancient India

- The society in ancient India was based on the concept of **varna**, which means color or class. There were four main varnas: **Brahmins** (priests and scholars), **Kshatriyas** (warriors and rulers), **Vaishyas** (merchants and farmers), and **Shudras** (servants and laborers).
- The varna system was not rigid or hereditary in the early Vedic period, but became more hierarchical and oppressive in the later periods. The varnas were also subdivided into many **jatis** or castes, which were based on occupation, region, and lineage. The jatis had their own rules, customs, and rituals.
- Below the four varnas, there were the **untouchables** or **Dalits**, who were considered impure and outcast by the rest of the society. They performed the most menial and degrading jobs, such as cleaning, scavenging, and cremating the dead. They faced discrimination and oppression from the upper varnas.
- The society in ancient India was also influenced by the concept of **ashrama**, which means stage of life. There were four main ashramas: **Brahmacharya** (student life), **Grihastha** (householder life), **Vanaprastha** (retired life), and **Sannyasa** (renounced life). Each ashrama had its own duties, responsibilities, and goals.
- The society in ancient India was also shaped by the religious and philosophical traditions that emerged in the region, such as **Hinduism**, **Buddhism**, **Jainism**, and **Sikhism**. These traditions had different views on the nature of reality, the role of gods and goddesses, the path to salvation, the ethics and morals, and the rituals and practices.
- The society in ancient India was also enriched by the cultural and scientific achievements that the people of the region made in various fields, such as **literature**, **art**, **architecture**, **mathematics**, **astronomy**, **medicine**, **music**, **dance**, and **drama**. These achievements reflected the diversity, creativity, and sophistication of the ancient Indian civilization.

Purusārtha in Society in Ancient India

- Purusārtha (Sanskrit: पुरुषार्थ) means “object (ive) of human pursuit” or “human goal”.
- It is a key concept in Hinduism that refers to the four proper goals or aims of a human life. These are Dharma, Artha, Kama and Moksha.
- Dharma means righteousness, moral values, duty, law and ethics. It is the foundation of the other three goals and guides the human conduct in accordance with the cosmic order.
- Artha means prosperity, economic values, wealth, security and power. It is the means to achieve the other goals and to fulfill the material needs of

life.

- Kama means pleasure, love, desire, enjoyment and sensuality. It is the expression of the human emotions and passions in a balanced and harmonious way.
- Moksha means liberation, emancipation, freedom and release. It is the ultimate goal of human life and the transcendence of the cycle of birth and death.
- The concept of Purusārtha is a fundamental principle of social ethics and a way to seek truth and attain salvation. It is not only meant to set an ideal objective but also to convey the right means to achieve them.
- The concept of Purusārtha is also related to the concept of Karma, which means action, deed, work and causality. Karma is the law of cause and effect that governs the human actions and their consequences.
- According to the concept of Karma, the human actions are influenced by the three gunas or qualities of nature: sattva (purity, goodness, harmony), rajas (activity, passion, dynamism) and tamas (inertia, ignorance, darkness).
- The human actions also produce positive or negative results, which are called punya (merit) and papa (sin). These results affect the present and future lives of the individual and determine their destiny.
- The concept of Karma implies that the human beings are responsible for their actions and their outcomes, and that they can shape their own destiny by following the path of Dharma and pursuing the Purusārtha.
- The concept of Purusārtha also reflects the diversity and complexity of the human society and the individual needs and aspirations. The four goals are not mutually exclusive or contradictory, but complementary and interdependent.
- The concept of Purusārtha also varies according to the four classes (varnas) and the four stages (ashramas) of the human life. The four classes are Brahmins (priests, teachers, intellectuals), Kshatriyas (warriors, rulers, administrators), Vaishyas (merchants, traders, farmers) and Shudras (servants, laborers, artisans). The four stages are Brahmacharya (student), Grihastha (householder), Vanaprastha (retired) and Sannyasa (renunciant).
- The concept of Purusārtha also evolves and adapts to the changing times and circumstances of the human history and culture. The concept of Purusārtha is not rigid or dogmatic, but flexible and dynamic.
- The concept of Purusārtha is a unique and profound contribution of the ancient Indian civilization to the world. It is a holistic and comprehensive vision of the human life and its purpose.

Varnāshrama System in Society in Ancient India

- The varnāshrama system was a social and ethical framework that divided the Hindu society into four classes (varnas) and four stages of life (ashramas).

- The four varnas were: Brahman (priests and teachers), Kshatriya (kings and warriors), Vaishya (traders and farmers), and Shudra (servants and laborers).
- The four ashramas were: Brahmacharya (student), Grihastha (householder), Vanaprastha (forest dweller), and Sannyasa (renunciate).
- The varnāshrama system was based on the concept of dharma, or duty, that each individual had to perform according to their varna and ashrama.
- The varnāshrama system aimed to maintain social order and harmony, as well as to facilitate spiritual growth and liberation for each individual.
- The varnāshrama system was not rigid or fixed, but flexible and dynamic, allowing for mobility and change based on one's qualities, actions, and circumstances.
- The varnāshrama system was influenced by various factors, such as geography, history, culture, religion, and politics, and underwent transformations and modifications over time.
- The varnāshrama system was not a caste system, but a class system, that was later distorted and corrupted by the practice of hereditary and hierarchical caste system, which was condemned by many Hindu reformers and thinkers.

Āshrama or the Stages of Life in Society in Ancient India

- Āshrama (Sanskrit: आश्रम) is a system of stages of life discussed in Hindu texts of the ancient and medieval eras.
- The Āshrama system is one facet of the Dharma concept in Hinduism, which prescribes the duties and responsibilities of an individual according to their age, occupation, and social status .
- The four Āshramas are:
 - Brahmacharya (student), marked by chastity, devotion, and obedience to one's teacher. This stage lasts from childhood until the completion of education, usually around the age of 25.
 - Gṛhastha (householder), requiring marriage, the begetting of children, sustaining one's family and helping support priests and holy men, and fulfillment of duties toward gods and ancestors. This stage lasts from the end of education until the age of 50.
 - Vanaprastha (forest walker/forest dweller), involving gradual withdrawal from worldly affairs, detachment from material possessions, and contemplation of spiritual matters. This stage lasts from the age of 50 until the age of 75.
 - Sannyasa (renunciate), involving complete renunciation of worldly life, wandering as a mendicant, and seeking liberation from the cycle of birth and death. This stage lasts from the age of 75 until death.
- The Āshrama system was meant to provide a framework for the spiritual and moral development of an individual, as well as to maintain the social order and harmony in ancient India .

Marriage in Society in Ancient India

- Marriage was a sacred institution that brought together the two halves of life, man and woman, to form a complete and organic whole.
- Marriage was also a social contract that established kinship ties, rights and duties, and mutual obligations between the spouses and their families.
- Marriage was regulated by various laws and customs, such as caste, gotra, varna, and kula, that determined the eligibility and compatibility of the partners.
- Marriage was performed through various rituals and ceremonies, such as the kanyadan, the saptapadi, the homa, and the mangalsutra, that symbolized the sanctity and permanence of the bond.
- Marriage was classified into eight main types, according to the mode of acquisition of the bride and the degree of consent involved, namely Brahma, Daiva, Arsha, Prajapatya, Gandharva, Asura, Rakshasa, and Paisacha.
- Marriage was influenced by various factors, such as economic, political, religious, and cultural, that shaped the dynamics and expectations of the marital relationship.

Understanding Gender as a Social Category in Society in Ancient India

- Gender is a social construct that defines the roles, expectations and norms associated with different sexes in a given society.
- In ancient India, gender roles were not fixed or rigid, but varied according to the time period, region, caste, class and religion.
- Generally, ancient India's society greatly favored men over women, and patriarchal values were dominant. Men were expected to be the protectors, providers and leaders of the family and society, while women were expected to be the nurturers, caregivers and supporters of the men.
- However, there were also some exceptions and variations in this pattern. For instance, in the Vedic period (1500-600 BCE), women were considered with respect and dignity, and had access to education, religious rituals and philosophical debates. There were women rishis (sages) and scholars, such as Gargi, Maitreyi and Lopamudra, who were held in high esteem. Women also had some rights to property and inheritance, and could choose their own husbands in some cases.
- In the later periods, such as the Mauryan (321-185 BCE), Gupta (320-550 CE) and post-Gupta (550-1200 CE) periods, the status of women declined gradually, and they faced more restrictions and subordination. Women were confined to the domestic sphere, and their education, mobility and autonomy were curtailed. They were subjected to the authority of their fathers, husbands and sons, and had to follow the codes of conduct prescribed by the Dharmashastras (law books). They were also expected to practice sati (self-immolation on the husband's funeral pyre), child marriage, dowry and polygamy in some cases.

- Despite these challenges, some women still managed to achieve remarkable feats in various fields, such as politics, literature, art, religion and social reform. For example, some notable women rulers were Prabhavati Gupta, Didda, Razia Sultana and Rani Lakshmibai. Some famous women poets and writers were Andal, Mirabai, Lal Ded and Akka Mahadevi. Some influential women saints and reformers were Khana, Avvaiyar, Bhakti poets and Rani Rashmoni.

The representation of Women in Historical traditions in Society in Ancient India

- Women in ancient India had a complex and varied status depending on the time period, the region, the religion, and the caste they belonged to.
- During the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1500 BCE), women were worshiped as mother goddesses and enjoyed equal honor and freedom as men.
- During the Vedic period (c. 1500-500 BCE), women held an honored place in society and could participate in war, gymnastics, public activities, decision-making, and education. They also had the right to choose their husbands in a ceremony called swayamvara.
- During the later Vedic period (c. 1000-600 BCE), the status of women declined due to the rise of patriarchy, caste system, and ritualism. Women were confined to the domestic sphere and had to obey their husbands and fathers. They were denied the right to study the Vedas or perform sacrifices.
- During the epic period (c. 600 BCE-200 CE), women were depicted as ideal wives, mothers, and daughters in the Ramayana and the Mahabharata. They were also respected as sages, teachers, and leaders in some cases. However, they also faced oppression, violence, and humiliation in the form of abduction, rape, polygamy, widowhood, and sati (self-immolation on the husband's pyre) .
- During the classical period (c. 200 BCE-1200 CE), women enjoyed some rights and privileges under the influence of Buddhism and Jainism, which advocated non-violence, equality, and compassion. Women could join the monastic orders and attain spiritual liberation. They also contributed to the fields of art, literature, and science. However, they still faced discrimination and subordination in the society dominated by Hinduism, which prescribed strict codes of conduct and duties for women based on the Manusmriti (the law book of Manu) .
- During the medieval period (c. 1200-1750 CE), women faced further deterioration of their status due to the invasions of Muslim rulers, who imposed purdah (veil), jauhar (mass suicide), and zanana (seclusion) on them. Women were treated as objects of lust, property, and honor by the invaders and the defenders alike. They had no voice or agency in the political, social, or religious spheres .

Challenges faced by Women in Society in Ancient India

- Women in ancient India had different roles and rights depending on the time period, the region, the religion, and the caste they belonged to.
- In general, women's rights gradually declined as patriarchy became more dominant and rigid in ancient India.
- Some of the challenges faced by women in society in ancient India were:
 - Lack of autonomy, mobility, and social freedom. Women were expected to be dependent on their fathers, husbands, or sons for their livelihood, protection, and decision-making. They were confined to the domestic sphere and had limited access to education, public life, and legal rights.
 - Child marriage and widowhood. Women were often married at a very young age, sometimes even before puberty, to men who were much older than them. They had no say in choosing their spouses and had to obey their husbands in all matters. If their husbands died, they faced social stigma, isolation, and harassment. Some widows were forced to commit sati, the practice of self-immolation on the funeral pyre of their husbands.
 - Exploitation and discrimination. Women were often subjected to violence, abuse, and harassment by their husbands, in-laws, or other men in society. They had no recourse to justice or protection from the law. They were also discriminated against in terms of inheritance, property, and religious rights. Some women were forced into prostitution or devadasi system, where they had to serve as temple dancers and concubines for the priests and nobles .
 - Low status and dignity. Women were considered inferior to men in terms of intellect, morality, and spirituality. They were seen as sources of temptation, impurity, and evil. They were denied the opportunity to study the Vedas, the sacred scriptures of Hinduism, and to perform rituals and sacrifices. They were also subjected to various restrictions and taboos regarding their dress, diet, and behavior .

Four-class Classification of Society in Ancient India

- The four-class classification of society in ancient India is also known as the **varna system** or the **caste system**. It is a hierarchical division of people based on their birth, occupation, and religious duties.
- The four classes are:
 - **Brahmins**: The highest class, consisting of priests, scholars, teachers, and spiritual leaders. They were responsible for performing rituals, studying the Vedas (sacred texts), and advising the rulers and the society. They were considered the purest and the most

learned class.

- **Kshatriyas**: The second highest class, consisting of rulers, warriors, administrators, and nobles. They were responsible for protecting the society, enforcing the law, and governing the land. They were considered the brave and the powerful class.
 - **Vaishyas**: The third highest class, consisting of farmers, merchants, traders, artisans, and craftsmen. They were responsible for producing and distributing goods and services, and supporting the economy. They were considered the productive and the wealthy class.
 - **Shudras**: The lowest class, consisting of laborers, servants, and workers. They were responsible for performing menial and manual tasks, and serving the higher classes. They were considered the impure and the dependent class.
- The four-class classification of society in ancient India was based on the concept of **dharma**, or the moral duty of each individual according to their class. Each class had its own rules, norms, and expectations that defined their rights and responsibilities. The system was meant to maintain social order and harmony, and to ensure the proper functioning of the society.
 - The four-class classification of society in ancient India was also influenced by the concept of **karma**, or the law of cause and effect. According to this belief, the actions of a person in their current life would determine their status and fate in their next life. Therefore, a person who followed their dharma and performed good deeds would be rewarded with a higher class in their next life, while a person who violated their dharma and performed bad deeds would be punished with a lower class in their next life.
 - The four-class classification of society in ancient India was not rigid or fixed, but rather flexible and dynamic. There were exceptions and variations in the system, such as sub-classes, mixed-classes, and outcastes. The system also changed over time, due to political, economic, social, and religious factors. The system was not universally accepted or practiced by all the people in ancient India, but rather contested and challenged by some groups and movements, such as Buddhism, Jainism, and Bhakti.

Slavery in Society in Ancient India

- Slavery was a universal social evil and had its origin even from the early period of history. In India, its origin is closely associated with the caste system.

- The early history of slavery in India is contested because it depends on the translations of terms such as *dasa* and *dasyu*. Greek writer Megasthenes in his work *Indika*, while describing the Maurya Empire states that slavery was banned in Indian society.
- Slavery system in India was very mild and most of the slaves were domestic slaves who were treated as members of the family. The Dharma Shastras of the 4th century B.C. were in a protesting mood against slavery. Slave trade was prohibited in the Shastras.
- Slavery existed in ancient India, where it is recorded in the Sanskrit Laws of Manu of the 1st century B.C. The institution was little documented until the British colonials in the 19th century made it an object of study because of their desire to abolish it.
- Many Africans travelled to India as slaves and traders, but eventually settled down here to play an important role in India's history of kingdoms, conquests and wars. Some of them, like Malik Ambar in Ahmadnagar (in western India), went on to become powerful military and political figures.

Module 2- Indian Literature, Culture, Tradition, and Practices

- Indian literature is one of the oldest and richest in the world, reflecting the diversity and complexity of Indian culture and society. Indian literature encompasses a variety of languages, genres, forms, and themes, ranging from the ancient Vedas and epics to the modern novels and poetry. Indian literature also includes oral traditions and folklores, which have been preserved and transmitted through generations.
- Indian culture is a synthesis of various influences, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, Islam, Sikhism, Christianity, and Zoroastrianism. Indian culture is characterized by its diversity, pluralism, tolerance, and harmony. Indian culture values family, community, spirituality, art, music, dance, and education. Indian culture also respects nature, animals, and the environment.
- Indian tradition is a set of beliefs, practices, customs, and rituals that have been handed down from generation to generation. Indian tradition encompasses various aspects of life, such as religion, philosophy, ethics, law, medicine, astronomy, mathematics, literature, architecture, and cuisine. Indian tradition also includes festivals, ceremonies, rites of passage, and celebrations that mark important occasions and events.
- Indian practices are the ways of living, working, and interacting that are shaped by Indian culture and tradition. Indian practices include the following:
 - Yoga: a system of physical, mental, and spiritual exercises that originated in India and aims to achieve harmony and balance between the

body, mind, and soul. Yoga is widely practiced by people of different faiths and backgrounds for its health and wellness benefits.

- Ayurveda: a system of holistic medicine that originated in India and is based on the principle of balance between the five elements (earth, water, fire, air, and ether) and the three doshas (vata, pitta, and kapha). Ayurveda uses natural remedies, such as herbs, oils, massages, and diet, to prevent and treat diseases and promote well-being.
- Meditation: a practice of focusing the mind on a single object, thought, or sensation, such as the breath, a mantra, or a sound, to achieve a state of awareness, calmness, and clarity. Meditation is an integral part of many Indian religions, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Sikhism, and is also practiced by people of other faiths and backgrounds for its mental and emotional benefits.
- Vegetarianism: a practice of abstaining from eating meat, fish, eggs, and other animal products, for ethical, religious, or health reasons. Vegetarianism is common among many Indians, especially Hindus, Jains, and Buddhists, who believe in the principle of ahimsa (non-violence) and respect for all living beings. Vegetarianism is also associated with lower risks of chronic diseases, such as diabetes, heart disease, and cancer.

Evolution of script in India

- A script is a written symbolisation of speech. A language is a method of communication. A script can be used to write one or more languages.
- India has a long history of writing, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900 BCE), which used a pictographic script that remains undeciphered.
- The earliest deciphered script of India is Brahmi, which was used to write the edicts of Emperor Ashoka (3rd century BCE) and other inscriptions in various languages, such as Prakrit, Sanskrit, Pali, and Tamil.
- Brahmi is the ancestor of most modern Indian scripts, as well as the scripts of Sri Lanka, Tibet, Southeast Asia, Philippines, and Indonesia.
- Brahmi evolved into different regional variants, such as Kharosthi, Gupta, Nagari, Siddham, and Grantha, depending on the cultural and linguistic influences.
- Brahmi also gave rise to cursive styles of writing, such as Nandinagari, Sharada, and Modi, which were faster and easier to write than the monumental inscriptions.
- The scripts of south India, such as Telugu, Kannada, Malayalam, and Tamil, became rounded due to the use of palm leaves as writing material.
- The scripts of north India, such as Devanagari, Bengali, Gujarati, and

Gurmukhi, retained the horizontal line on top of the letters, which was a feature of Brahmi.

- The scripts of India reflect the diversity and richness of its culture and languages, and have been influenced by various historical, religious, and artistic factors.

Evolution of languages in India

- India is a multilingual country with over 780 languages spoken by its people.
- The linguistic history of India can be traced back to the prehistoric period when various language families emerged and interacted with each other.
- The major language families in India are the Indo-Aryan, the Dravidian, the Austroasiatic and the Sino-Tibetan.
- The Indo-Aryan languages are derived from the Indo-European languages that originated in Central Asia and spread to India through migrations and invasions.
- The Dravidian languages are native to South India and have a long and rich literary tradition. They are unrelated to the Indo-Aryan languages and have influenced each other through contact.
- The Austroasiatic languages are spoken by tribal and indigenous communities in Central and Eastern India. They are related to the languages of Southeast Asia and have a distinctive phonology and morphology.
- The Sino-Tibetan languages are spoken by ethnic minorities in the Himalayan regions and the Northeastern states of India. They are related to the languages of China and Tibet and have a complex tonal system.
- The evolution of Indian languages is also influenced by external factors such as religion, culture, trade, colonization and globalization .
- Some of the major influences are:
 - The Vedic Sanskrit, the language of the ancient Hindu scriptures, which gave rise to the classical Sanskrit and the Prakrit languages.
 - The Pali, the language of the early Buddhist texts, which spread across India and beyond through the missionary activities of the Buddhist monks.
 - The Persian, the language of the Mughal Empire, which enriched the vocabulary and grammar of many Indian languages, especially Urdu and Hindi.
 - The Arabic, the language of the Islamic faith, which introduced many words and concepts related to religion, law, science and culture to the Indian languages.
 - The Portuguese, the first European colonizers of India, who brought many words and expressions related to navigation, commerce, food and clothing to the Indian languages.
 - The English, the language of the British Raj, which became the lingua franca of India and influenced the syntax, semantics and pragmatics of many Indian languages .

- The evolution of Indian languages is still ongoing as they adapt to the changing needs and preferences of the speakers and the society .
- Some of the current trends are:
 - The emergence of new varieties and dialects of Indian languages that reflect the regional, social and occupational diversity of the speakers .
 - The development of hybrid and mixed languages that combine elements from different languages, such as Hinglish (Hindi + English), Tanglish (Tamil + English) and Dakhini (Urdu + Telugu) .
 - The adoption of new words and expressions from other languages, especially English, that relate to modern technology, media, education and entertainment .
 - The preservation and revitalization of endangered and minority languages that face the threat of extinction due to linguistic assimilation and marginalization .
- The evolution of Indian languages is a fascinating and complex phenomenon that reflects the rich and diverse linguistic heritage of India. It also shows the dynamic and creative nature of human language in general.

Harappan Script

- Harappan script is the name given to the symbols found on the inscriptions and seals of the Indus Valley Civilisation, which flourished in the northwest of India and Pakistan from about 2500 to 1900 BCE .
- Harappan script is also known as Indus script, as it was first discovered at the site of Harappa, one of the major urban centres of the civilisation .
- Harappan script consists of about 400 signs, which vary in shape, size and orientation . Some signs are pictographic, representing animals, plants, objects or abstract concepts, while others are geometric or composite .
- Harappan script is written from right to left, sometimes with a boustrophedon (alternating direction) pattern . The signs are usually arranged in horizontal lines, but sometimes in vertical columns or in groups .
- Harappan script is not yet deciphered, meaning that the language or languages it represents are unknown . Many attempts have been made to read it, but none have gained wide acceptance or consensus .
- Harappan script is found on various types of materials, such as pottery, stone, metal, ivory, terracotta and faience . The most common and characteristic objects bearing Harappan script are the steatite seals, which were used for trade and administration purposes .
- Harappan script is one of the oldest writing systems in the world, and a remarkable achievement of the Indus Valley Civilisation . It reflects the complexity and sophistication of the culture that produced it, and offers a tantalising glimpse into its history and society .

Brahmi Script

- Brahmi script is the earliest writing system developed in India after the Indus script.
- It is one of the most influential writing systems; all modern Indian scripts and several hundred scripts found in Southeast and East Asia are derived from Brahmi .
- Brahmi script appeared as a fully developed script in the third century BCE .
- Brahmi script is mentioned in the ancient Indian texts of Hinduism, Jainism and Buddhism, as well as their Chinese translations.
- Brahmi script was already divided into regional variants at the time of the earliest surviving epigraphy around the third century BC.
- Brahmi script is thought to have been modelled on the Aramaic or Phoenician alphabets, or possibly derived from the Indus or Harappa script .
- Brahmi script consists of 33 consonants and 9 vowels, which can be combined to form syllabic characters.
- Brahmi script is written from left to right, with a horizontal line at the top to indicate the word boundary.
- Brahmi script has several diacritical marks to indicate tones, nasalization, aspiration, gemination, and other phonetic features.
- Brahmi script has a decimal number system, with separate symbols for 1, 2, 3, 4, 10, 20, 100, and 1000.
- Brahmi script has been deciphered by scholars using various methods, such as comparing it with other scripts, analyzing inscriptions, and studying ancient literature .

The Vedas

- The Vedas are a large body of religious texts originating in ancient India.
- The Vedas are composed in Vedic Sanskrit, the oldest layer of Sanskrit literature and the oldest scriptures of Hinduism.
- The word Veda means “knowledge” in Sanskrit, as the Vedas are thought to contain the fundamental knowledge relating to the underlying cause of, function of, and personal response to existence.
- The Vedas are divided into four collections: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda and the Atharvaveda.
- The Rigveda is the oldest and most important of the Vedas, containing 1,028 hymns to various gods and natural phenomena.
- The Yajurveda contains the formulas and rituals for performing sacrifices and ceremonies.
- The Samaveda consists of musical chants and melodies for the Rigvedic hymns.
- The Atharvaveda contains spells, charms, and incantations for various purposes, such as healing, protection, and prosperity.
- The Vedas have regulated the social, legal, domestic and religious customs of Hindus up to the present day.
- The Vedas are considered to be revealed by the gods to the sages, and are

therefore regarded as sacred and authoritative.

The Upanishads

- The Upanishads are ancient Hindu scriptures that explore the nature of reality, the self, and the supreme being.
- The word Upanishad means “to sit down closely”, implying the intimate dialogue between a teacher and a student.
- The Upanishads are part of the Vedas, the oldest and most authoritative Hindu texts, but they are considered the end or the essence of the Vedas (Vedanta).
- There are more than 200 Upanishads, but only 13 are considered the principal or the classical Upanishads. They are: Isa, Kena, Katha, Prasna, Mundaka, Mandukya, Taaittiriya, Aitareya, Chandogya, Brhadaranyaka, Svetasvatara, Kausitaki, and Maitri.
- The Upanishads were composed between 800 and 500 BCE, during a period of intellectual and spiritual development in India known as the Upanishadic or the Vedantic period.
- The Upanishads present a vision of an interconnected universe with a single, unifying principle behind the apparent diversity in the cosmos, called Brahman. Brahman is the ultimate reality, the source and the goal of all existence.
- The Upanishads also teach that Brahman resides in the Atman, the unchanging core of the human individual. The Atman is the true self, the essence of one’s being, beyond the body, mind, and ego.
- The Upanishads aim to reveal the identity of the Atman and the Brahman, and the way to realize this identity through knowledge, meditation, and ethical conduct. This realization is called Moksha, or liberation from the cycle of birth and death (Samsara).
- The Upanishads contain various philosophical concepts and doctrines, such as the doctrine of Karma (action and its consequences), the doctrine of Rebirth (transmigration of the soul), the doctrine of Maya (illusion), the doctrine of Dharma (duty or law), and the doctrine of Yoga (discipline or practice).
- The Upanishads are the source of inspiration and guidance for many Hindu schools of thought, such as Advaita Vedanta (non-dualism), Vishishtadvaita Vedanta (qualified non-dualism), Dvaita Vedanta (dualism), and others. They are also influential in other religions, such as Buddhism, Jainism, Sikhism, and even Western philosophy.

The Ramayana

The Ramayana is a Hindu epic that narrates the life and adventures of Rama, the prince of Kosala, and his wife Sita. The main theme of the epic is the conflict between Rama and Ravana, the king of Lanka, who abducts Sita and tries to force her to marry him. Rama, with the help of his brother Lakshmana and the

monkey army led by Hanuman, rescues Sita and defeats Ravana. The epic also explores the concepts of dharma (duty), karma (action and consequence), and bhakti (devotion).

Some of the main points of the epic are:

- Rama is the seventh avatar (incarnation) of Vishnu, the supreme god of Hinduism. He is born to King Dasaratha and Queen Kausalya of Ayodhya, the capital of Kosala. He has three brothers: Bharata, Lakshmana, and Shatrughna.
- Rama is an ideal son, brother, husband, and king. He is brave, loyal, righteous, and compassionate. He follows his dharma (duty) even when it causes him pain and hardship. He is devoted to his wife Sita, who is an incarnation of Lakshmi, the goddess of wealth and prosperity.
- Sita is the daughter of King Janaka of Mithila. She is found in a furrow as a baby and adopted by Janaka. She is beautiful, virtuous, and faithful. She loves Rama and follows him into exile. She is kidnapped by Ravana, who is attracted by her beauty and purity. She resists his advances and remains loyal to Rama. She is rescued by Rama after a long and bloody war.
- Ravana is the king of Lanka, a powerful island kingdom. He is a rakshasa (demon) who has ten heads and twenty arms. He is a great scholar, warrior, and devotee of Shiva, the god of destruction. He is also arrogant, cruel, and lustful. He has a boon from Brahma, the creator god, that he cannot be killed by any god or demon. He abuses his power and terrorizes the three worlds: heaven, earth, and the underworld. He kidnaps Sita to avenge his sister Surpanakha, who is mutilated by Lakshmana for trying to seduce Rama.
- Hanuman is the son of the wind god Vayu and a monkey princess. He is a loyal servant and friend of Rama. He is the leader of the vanara (monkey) army that helps Rama in his quest to rescue Sita. He is endowed with superhuman strength, speed, and intelligence. He can fly, change his size, and assume any form. He is the first to find Sita in Lanka and reassure her of Rama's arrival. He also sets fire to Lanka and kills many of Ravana's warriors.
- The epic consists of seven books (kandas) and 24,000 verses. The books are: Bala Kanda (The Book of Childhood), Ayodhya Kanda (The Book of Ayodhya), Aranya Kanda (The Book of the Forest), Kishkindha Kanda (The Book of Kishkindha), Sundara Kanda (The Book of Beauty), Yuddha Kanda (The Book of War), and Uttara Kanda (The Book of the Epilogue).
- The epic is attributed to the sage Valmiki, who is considered the first poet in Sanskrit literature. He composed the epic after meeting Rama and Sita in the forest. He also taught the epic to Rama's twin sons, Lava and Kusha, who later recited it to Rama in his court.
- The epic is one of the most influential and popular works in Indian culture. It has been translated, adapted, and retold in various languages and media. It is also a source of inspiration and guidance for many Hindus. It teaches

the values of dharma, karma, and bhakti, and the ideals of human conduct and relationships.

The Mahabharata

- The Mahabharata is one of the two major Sanskrit epics of India, along with the Ramayana .
- It is a long and complex narrative that covers the history, culture, religion, and philosophy of ancient India.
- It tells the story of the struggle for the throne of Hastinapura between two groups of cousins, the Kauravas and the Pandavas .
- The main events of the epic are the Kurukshetra War, a 18-day battle between the Kauravas and the Pandavas, and the Bhagavad Gita, a dialogue between the Pandava prince Arjuna and the god Krishna, who advises him on his duty and dharma .
- The Mahabharata is also a source of moral and spiritual guidance for Hindus, as it contains various stories, parables, and teachings on dharma, karma, reincarnation, and liberation .
- The Mahabharata is traditionally attributed to the sage Vyasa, who is also a character in the epic. It is believed to have been composed over a period of centuries, from the 4th century BCE to the 4th century CE .
- The Mahabharata is divided into 18 books or parvas, each containing several chapters or adhyayas. The total number of verses in the epic is about 74,000, making it one of the longest poems in the world .

Puranas

- Puranas are a genre of ancient Indian literature that contain stories, legends, myths, and genealogies of various Hindu deities, sages, kings, and dynasties.
- Puranas are considered as the fifth Veda, after the four Vedas (Rigveda, Yajurveda, Samaveda, and Atharvaveda), which are the primary scriptures of Hinduism.
- Puranas are written in Sanskrit verse, mostly in the form of narrative couplets, and date from the 4th century BCE to the 10th century CE.
- Puranas are classified into two categories: Mahapuranas (major Puranas) and Upapuranas (minor Puranas). There are 18 Mahapuranas and 18 Upapuranas, although some sources list more or less.
- Puranas are also categorized according to the three aspects of the divine: Sattva (purity), Rajas (passion), and Tamas (ignorance). The Sattva Puranas glorify Vishnu, the Rajas Puranas glorify Brahma, and the Tamas Puranas glorify Shiva.

- Puranas are not considered as authoritative or binding as the Vedas, but rather as supplementary and illustrative texts that convey the moral and spiritual teachings of Hinduism through stories and symbols.
- Puranas are popular and widely read by Hindus of all sects and regions, as they provide a rich and diverse source of cultural, historical, and religious knowledge and inspiration.

Buddhist Literature in Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit

- Buddhist literature is the collection of writings that preserve the teachings and traditions of Buddhism.
- Buddhist literature can be divided into two main categories: canonical and non-canonical.
- Canonical literature refers to the scriptures that are considered authoritative and authentic by various Buddhist schools and traditions. Non-canonical literature refers to the writings that are not accepted as canonical by all Buddhists, but may have historical, doctrinal, or literary value.
- The canonical literature of Buddhism is written in various languages, depending on the region and time period of its composition. The most prominent languages are Pali, Prakrit, and Sanskrit.
- Pali is an ancient language that is closely related to Sanskrit, but has some differences in grammar, vocabulary, and pronunciation. It is said that the Buddha delivered his sermons in Pali, or a dialect similar to it, and that his disciples preserved his teachings in the same language. Pali is the canonical language of Theravada Buddhism, the oldest and most conservative branch of Buddhism, which is mainly practiced in Sri Lanka and Southeast Asia. The Pali canon, also known as the Tipitaka or the Three Baskets, consists of three main collections: the Vinaya Pitaka (the Basket of Discipline), the Sutta Pitaka (the Basket of Discourses), and the Abhidhamma Pitaka (the Basket of Higher Teachings). The Pali canon also includes commentaries, sub-commentaries, and other supplementary texts that explain and interpret the scriptures.
- Prakrit is a generic term for any language that is derived from or influenced by Sanskrit, but is not Sanskrit itself. Prakrit languages were spoken by various people in ancient India, especially in the regions of Magadha, Kosala, and Avanti. Prakrit languages are the canonical languages of Mahayana Buddhism, the more liberal and diverse branch of Buddhism, which is mainly practiced in East Asia and Tibet. The Mahayana canon, also known as the Mahayana Sutras or the Perfection of Wisdom Sutras, consists of numerous texts that expound the doctrines and practices of Mahayana Buddhism, such as the concept of emptiness, the bodhisattva ideal, and the six perfections. The Mahayana canon also includes treatises, commentaries, and other works by various Mahayana masters and scholars. The most common Prakrit languages used in the Mahayana canon are Sauraseni, Maharastri, Magadhi, and Gandhari.

- Sanskrit is the classical and literary language of ancient India, which is derived from the Vedic language, the language of the oldest Hindu scriptures. Sanskrit is the canonical language of Vajrayana Buddhism, the esoteric and tantric branch of Buddhism, which is mainly practiced in Tibet, Nepal, Bhutan, and Mongolia. The Vajrayana canon, also known as the Tantras or the Secret Mantra, consists of texts that reveal the secret and advanced teachings and practices of Vajrayana Buddhism, such as the use of mantras, mudras, mandalas, and deities. The Vajrayana canon also includes works by various Vajrayana masters and adepts. Some of the Vajrayana texts are also written in Tibetan, Mongolian, and other languages.
- Buddhist literature in Pali, Prakrit, and Sanskrit reflects the diversity and richness of the Buddhist tradition, as well as the historical and cultural contexts of its development and transmission. Buddhist literature in these languages also influences and interacts with other forms of literature, such as poetry, drama, epics, and stories, in various regions and periods of history. Buddhist literature in Pali, Prakrit, and Sanskrit is a valuable source of knowledge and inspiration for Buddhists and non-Buddhists alike.

Jain Literature in Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit

- Jain literature refers to the literature of the Jain religion, which is one of the oldest and major religions of India.
- Jain literature is a vast and ancient literary tradition, which was initially transmitted orally by the teachers and disciples of Jainism.
- Jain literature can be broadly divided into two categories: canonical and non-canonical.
- Canonical literature consists of the sacred texts that are accepted as authoritative by the Jains. They are also known as Agamas or Siddhantas.
- Non-canonical literature consists of the texts that are not accepted as authoritative by all the Jains, but are still valuable for their historical, philosophical, ethical, and literary significance. They include commentaries, biographies, stories, poems, and other genres.
- Jain literature is written in various languages, such as Prakrit, Pali, Sanskrit, Apabhramsha, Hindi, Gujarati, and others.
- Prakrit is a collective term for the Middle Indo-Aryan languages that were spoken in ancient India. Prakrit was the language of the common people, as opposed to Sanskrit, which was the language of the elite and the learned.
- Pali is a form of Prakrit that was used as the language of the Buddhist scriptures and literature. Pali was also influenced by Sanskrit and other regional languages.
- Sanskrit is the classical and literary language of ancient India, which was used for religious, philosophical, scientific, and artistic purposes. Sanskrit is the source of many modern Indian languages and has a rich and diverse literature.
- Jain literature in Prakrit is the oldest and most extensive. It includes the

canonical texts, such as the Angas, Upangas, Prakirnas, Chhedab Sutras, and Malasutras, which deal with various aspects of Jain doctrine, ethics, cosmology, history, and ritual.

- Jain literature in Pali is relatively scarce, as Pali was mainly used by the Buddhists. However, some Jain texts, such as the Nandisutta and the Uttarajjhaya, were written in Pali, probably to reach a wider audience.
- Jain literature in Sanskrit is comparatively later and more diverse. It includes the works of famous Jain poets, philosophers, grammarians, and historians, such as Siddharasi, Hemachandra, Haribhadra, Jinasena, Somadeva, and others. Some of these works are original compositions, while others are translations or adaptations of Prakrit or Pali texts.

Kautilya's Arthashastra

- The Arthashastra is an ancient Indian treatise on statecraft, politics, economics, military strategy, and social organization.
- It is attributed to Kautilya, also known as Chanakya, Vishnugupta, or the Prime Minister of the Mauryan Empire under Chandragupta Maurya (c. 321-c. 297 BCE).
- The Arthashastra consists of 15 books, 150 chapters, and about 6000 verses. It covers topics such as the nature and duties of the king, the structure and functions of the government, the principles and methods of diplomacy, the laws and administration of justice, the defense and security of the state, the taxation and revenue collection, the management and regulation of trade and commerce, the welfare and development of the people, and the ethics and morals of public life.
- The Arthashastra is considered one of the earliest and most comprehensive works on political science and statecraft in the world. It reflects the political, social, and economic conditions of ancient India, as well as the influence of various schools of thought, such as Vedism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Samkhya.
- The Arthashastra is also known for its pragmatic and realistic approach to governance, based on the concept of artha, or material gain, as the primary goal of the state. Kautilya advocates a balance between the four ends of human life: dharma (righteousness), artha (wealth), kama (pleasure), and moksha (liberation). He also advises the king to use various means, such as sana (conciliation), dana (gift), bheda (dissension), and danda (punishment), to achieve his objectives, depending on the circumstances.
- The Arthashastra is a valuable source of historical and cultural information, as well as a guide for modern-day policy makers and administrators. It has been translated and interpreted by various scholars and commentators, both in India and abroad. It has also inspired and influenced many leaders and thinkers, such as Jawaharlal Nehru, Mahatma Gandhi, and Chanakya Pandit.

Famous Sanskrit Authors in India

Sanskrit is one of the oldest and most influential languages of India. It has a rich literary tradition that spans over two millennia. Many Sanskrit authors have contributed to various genres of literature, such as poetry, drama, philosophy, grammar, and religious texts. Here are some of the famous Sanskrit authors in India:

- **Kalidasa:** He is considered to be the greatest Sanskrit poet and dramatist of India. He lived in the 4th or 5th century CE and wrote several works of classical Sanskrit drama, such as *Malavikagnimitra*, *Abhijnanasakuntalam*, and *Vikramorvasiyam*. He also composed lyrical poems, such as *Meghaduta*, *Ritusamhara*, and *Kumarasambhava*.
- **Bhasa:** He is one of the earliest and most prolific Sanskrit dramatists of India. He is said to have lived around the 3rd century CE and wrote thirteen plays, such as *Urubhanga*, *Madhyamavyayoga*, and *Svapnavasavadatta*. His plays are known for their realism, humor, and innovation.
- **Bhartrihari:** He is a renowned Sanskrit poet and philosopher of the 5th or 6th century CE. He is the author of three collections of verses, namely *Satakatraya*, which consists of *Niti Sataka*, *Sringara Sataka*, and *Vairagya Sataka*. His verses deal with ethical, erotic, and spiritual themes and are noted for their wit, wisdom, and elegance.
- **Banabhatta:** He is a celebrated Sanskrit prose writer and poet of the 7th century CE. He was the court poet of King Harshavardhana and wrote two historical romances, namely *Harshacharita* and *Kadambari*. His works are admired for their style, imagination, and narration.
- **Purusottama Deva:** He was a king and a scholar of the 15th century CE. He ruled over Orissa and was a patron of Sanskrit literature and art. He wrote several works, such as *Muktichintamani*, *Gopalarchana Vidhi*, and *Bhubaneswari Pujapallava*. His works reflect his devotion to Lord Krishna and his interest in Tantra.
- **Satyavrat Shastri:** He is a modern Sanskrit poet and scholar of the 20th and 21st centuries. He has written many works in various genres, such as *Ramakirtimahakavya*, *Sribodhisattvacharitam*, and *Brahattaram Bharatam*. He has also translated several works from other languages into Sanskrit. He is the first and only Sanskrit author to win the Jnanpith Award, India's highest literary honor.

Telugu Literature

Telugu literature is the body of works written in the Telugu language, which is a Dravidian language spoken by about 80 million people in India. Telugu literature has a rich and diverse history, spanning from the 10th or 11th century to the present day. Some of the main features and genres of Telugu literature are:

- **Poetry:** Telugu poetry is known for its lyrical beauty, musicality, and

imagery. Telugu poets have used various forms and meters, such as the śataka (a collection of 100 verses), the padya (a verse with a fixed number of syllables), the kanda (a long narrative poem), and the geya (a song-like poem). Some of the famous Telugu poets are Nannaya, Tikkana, Srinatha, Potana, Annamacharya, Kshetrappa, Tyagaraja, and Sri Sri.

- **Epics:** Telugu literature has produced several epics, both secular and religious, that narrate the stories of heroes, gods, and sages. The most notable epics are the Telugu versions of the Mahabharata and the Ramayana, which were composed by Nannaya, Tikkana, and Errana in the 11th to 14th centuries. Other epics include the Harivamsa, the Bhagavata, the Markandeya Purana, and the Basava Purana.
- **Prose:** Telugu prose emerged in the 16th century, influenced by the Persian and Arabic languages and literature. Telugu prose works include historical accounts, biographies, travelogues, dictionaries, and commentaries. Some of the prominent Telugu prose writers are Pingali Surana, Allasani Peddana, Ketana, and Appakavi.
- **Drama:** Telugu drama developed in the 17th century, inspired by the Sanskrit theater and the folk arts. Telugu dramas are usually based on mythological or historical themes, and are performed with music, dance, and costumes. Some of the renowned Telugu dramatists are Siddhendra Yogi, Vedantadesika, Dhurjati, and Chilakamarthi Lakshminarasimham.
- **Novels:** Telugu novels emerged in the 19th century, influenced by the English and Bengali novels. Telugu novels deal with various themes, such as social reform, nationalism, romance, realism, and fantasy. Some of the notable Telugu novelists are Gurajada Apparao, Kandukuri Veeresalingam, Viswanatha Satyanarayana, Ranganayakamma, and Yandamuri Veerendranath.
- **Short stories:** Telugu short stories are a modern genre, which began in the early 20th century. Telugu short stories reflect the contemporary issues, such as urbanization, industrialization, feminism, and globalization. Some of the influential Telugu short story writers are Chalam, Gopichand, Ravi Sastry, and Madhurantakam Rajaram.

Kannada Literature

Kannada literature is the body of written works in the Kannada language, a member of the Dravidian family spoken mainly in the Indian state of Karnataka. Kannada literature has a rich and long history, dating back to the 6th century AD. Some of the main features of Kannada literature are:

- Kannada literature is divided into three main periods: Old Kannada (6th to 13th century), Middle Kannada (14th to 18th century) and Modern Kannada (19th century to present).
- Kannada literature has produced many genres and forms, such as poetry, prose, drama, grammar, philosophy, history, biography, chronicles, cuisine, dictionaries and encyclopedias.

- Kannada literature has been influenced by various literary traditions, such as Jainism, Buddhism, Shaivism, Vaishnavism, Bhakti, Veerashaivism, Haridasa, Vachana, Navya and Dalit.
- Kannada literature has also contributed to the development of other languages and literatures, such as Telugu, Tamil, Malayalam, Marathi, Hindi and English.
- Kannada literature has been recognized by many awards and honors, such as the Jnanpith Award, the Sahitya Akademi Award, the Padma Shri and the Padma Vibhushan.

Some of the notable writers and works of Kannada literature are:

- Pampa, Ranna and Ponna, the three gems of Old Kannada literature, who wrote epic poems based on Hindu mythology and history.
- Basavanna, Akka Mahadevi and Allama Prabhu, the prominent poets of the Vachana movement, who expressed their devotion and social reform through simple and direct verses.
- Harihara and Raghavanka, the pioneers of the shatpadi (six-line verse) meter, who wrote on religious and secular themes.
- Kumara Vyasa and Lakshmisha, the authors of the Kannada versions of the Mahabharata and the Ramayana, respectively, who added local flavor and innovation to the classical epics.
- Sarvajna, the 16th century poet and philosopher, who wrote witty and wise three-line poems called tripadi.
- Purandara Dasa and Kanaka Dasa, the leading figures of the Haridasa movement, who composed devotional songs in praise of Vishnu and his incarnations.
- Bendre, Kuvempu and Shivaram Karanth, the modern Kannada writers who won the Jnanpith Award, the highest literary honor in India, for their works of poetry, fiction and non-fiction.
- Masti Venkatesha Iyengar, S.L. Bhyrappa and U.R. Ananthamurthy, the acclaimed Kannada novelists who explored various themes and styles in their works.
- Girish Karnad, Chandrashekhara Kambara and P. Lankesh, the eminent Kannada playwrights who enriched the Kannada theatre with their original and innovative plays.
- K.S. Narasimhaswamy, Gopalakrishna Adiga and K.S. Nissar Ahmed, the prominent Kannada poets who initiated and influenced the Navya (new) movement, which brought modernism and experimentation to Kannada poetry.

Malayalam Literature

Malayalam literature is the literature written in Malayalam, a South-Dravidian language spoken in the Indian state of Kerala. It has a rich and diverse history that spans over a thousand years. Some of the main features and periods of Malayalam literature are:

- The earliest known literary work in Malayalam is **Ramacharitam**, a poem composed in the late 12th or early 13th century by Cheeraman, a Chera king. It narrates the story of Rama in a simple and elegant style.
- The next phase of Malayalam literature is marked by the emergence of **Manipravalam**, a hybrid style that combines Malayalam and Sanskrit words and grammar. This style was mainly used for writing erotic and devotional poetry by poets such as Cherusseri Namboothiri, Thunchaththu Ezhuthachan, and Poonthanam .
- The 16th and 17th centuries saw the development of **Pattu**, a popular song literature that used native meters and idioms. Some of the famous Pattu poets were Ezhuthachan, Kunchan Nambiar, and Ramapurathu Warriar. They wrote on various themes such as religion, morality, satire, and humor .
- The 18th and 19th centuries witnessed the growth of **Prose**, which was influenced by the Western genres of novel, drama, biography, and travelogue. Some of the pioneers of Malayalam prose were Paremmakkal Thoma Kathanar, who wrote the first travelogue in any Indian language, Varthamanappusthakam, in 1785, Benjamin Bailey, who compiled the first Malayalam-English dictionary in 1846, and Hermann Gundert, who published the first Malayalam grammar in 1859 .
- The 20th century saw the emergence of **Modernism**, which brought new forms and styles to Malayalam literature. Some of the prominent modernist writers were Kumaran Asan, Vallathol Narayana Menon, Ulloor S. Parameswara Iyer, G. Sankara Kurup, Thakazhi Sivasankara Pillai, M.T. Vasudevan Nair, O.V. Vijayan, Kamala Das, and M. Mukundan. They explored themes such as nationalism, social reform, realism, existentialism, feminism, and postcolonialism .
- The 21st century is marked by the rise of **Postmodernism**, which challenges the conventions and assumptions of modernism. Some of the post-modernist writers are Anand, Paul Zacharia, K.R. Meera, Benyamin, T.D. Ramakrishnan, and N.S. Madhavan. They experiment with language, narrative, genre, and identity, and address issues such as globalization, migration, marginalization, and hybridity .

Malayalam literature is a vibrant and diverse field that reflects the culture, history, and aspirations of the Malayali people. It has been recognized by various awards and honors, such as the Jnanpith Award, the Sahitya Akademi Award, and the Kerala Sahitya Akademi Award. It has also been translated into many languages and has reached a global audience. Malayalam literature is a valuable source of knowledge and enjoyment for anyone interested in learning more about Kerala and its people.

Sangama Literature in India

- Sangama literature is the earliest known literature in the Tamil language, composed between the 1st and 4th centuries CE by poets belonging to

three literary academies (sangams) in Madurai, India .

- Sangama literature consists of 18 works, including eight anthologies of poems (Ettuthokai) and ten long poems (Pattuppattu), as well as commentaries and grammatical treatises.
- Sangama literature is broadly classified into two categories: akam (inner) and puram (outer). Akam poetry deals with themes of love, eroticism, and emotions, while puram poetry deals with themes of heroism, war, and public life.
- Sangama literature reflects the social, cultural, political, and religious aspects of ancient Tamil society, as well as the natural beauty and diversity of the Tamil land. It also showcases the poetic skills, imagery, and metaphors of the sangam poets.
- Sangama literature is considered to be a valuable source of information and inspiration for Tamil culture, language, and literature, as well as for the history of South India and Sri Lanka . It is also admired for its aesthetic and artistic qualities by scholars and readers across the world.

Northern Indian languages

- Northern Indian languages are mainly part of the Indo-Aryan branch of the Indo-European language family.
- They are spoken by about 75% of the population of India, mostly in the northern, central and western regions of the country.
- Some of the major Northern Indian languages are:
 - **Hindi:** The most widely spoken language in India, with about 528 million speakers. It is the official language of the central government and several states, and one of the 22 scheduled languages of India. It is written in the Devanagari script and has many dialects, such as Braj, Awadhi, Bhojpuri, Rajasthani and Haryanvi .
 - **Urdu:** The national language of Pakistan and one of the 22 scheduled languages of India, with about 70 million speakers. It is closely related to Hindi, but has more Persian and Arabic influence. It is written in the Perso-Arabic script and has many dialects, such as Dakhini, Rekhta and Hyderabad .
 - **Punjabi:** The official language of the state of Punjab and one of the 22 scheduled languages of India, with about 125 million speakers. It is also spoken in Pakistan, where it is written in the Shahmukhi script, and in India, where it is written in the Gurmukhi script. It has many dialects, such as Majhi, Malwi, Doabi and Pothwari .
 - **Kashmiri:** The official language of the union territory of Jammu and Kashmir and one of the 22 scheduled languages of India, with about 7 million speakers. It is written in the Perso-Arabic script or the Devanagari script, and has many dialects, such as Kishtwari, Poguli and Rambani .

- **Bihari:** A group of languages spoken in the state of Bihar and neighboring regions, with about 104 million speakers. Some of the Bihari languages are Bhojpuri, Maithili, Magahi and Angika. They are written in the Devanagari script or the Kaithi script, and have many dialects, such as Sarawaria, Tharu and Vajjika .
- **Pahari:** A group of languages spoken in the Himalayan regions of India, Pakistan and Nepal, with about 4 million speakers. Some of the Pahari languages are Garhwali, Kumaoni, Nepali and Dogri. They are written in the Devanagari script or the Takri script, and have many dialects, such as Jaunsari, Lohari and Sirmauri .
- Northern Indian languages have a rich literary and cultural heritage, and have influenced and been influenced by other languages, such as Sanskrit, Persian, Arabic, English and Dravidian languages.
- Northern Indian languages are mutually intelligible to varying degrees, depending on the geographic proximity and linguistic affinity of the speakers. They also share some common grammatical features, such as gender, number, case and tense. However, they also have some distinctive phonological, morphological and lexical differences, such as the presence or absence of retroflex consonants, aspirated consonants, nasalization, honorifics and loanwords .

North Indian Literature

- North Indian literature refers to the literature produced in the languages of northern India, such as Hindi, Urdu, Punjabi, Kashmiri, Rajasthani, etc.
- North Indian literature has been influenced by the ancient Indian background, which includes two Sanskrit epic poems, the Mahabharata and Ramayana, as well as the Bhagavata-purana and the other Puranas.
- North Indian literature also reflects the cultural diversity and historical changes of the region, such as the Islamic invasions, the Mughal rule, the British colonization, the Partition, and the modern nation-building.
- Some of the prominent features of North Indian literature are:
 - The use of vernacular languages and dialects, often mixed with Persian, Arabic, and English words.
 - The development of various poetic forms, such as the ghazal, the doha, the chaupai, the kavita, etc.
 - The expression of religious, social, and political themes, such as devotion, love, patriotism, nationalism, etc.
 - The incorporation of folk tales, legends, myths, and oral traditions, such as the Panchatantra, the Jataka, the Kathasaritsagara, etc.
 - The influence of classical Sanskrit literature, especially the works of Kalidasa, who wrote plays and poems that are considered masterpieces of world literature .
- Some of the notable authors and works of North Indian literature are:

- Tulsidas, who wrote Ramcharitmanas, a Hindi version of the Ramayana, which is widely read and recited by Hindus.
- Surdas, who wrote Sur Sagar, a collection of devotional poems in praise of Krishna, which are considered the epitome of the Bhakti movement.
- Amir Khusro, who wrote Khamsa-e-Nizami, a series of five epic poems in Persian, which are regarded as the finest examples of Indo-Persian literature.
- Chand Bardai, who wrote Prithviraj Raso, a historical romance in Hindi, which narrates the life and exploits of Prithviraj Chauhan, a Rajput king who fought against the Muslim invaders.
- Premchand, who wrote novels and short stories in Hindi and Urdu, which depict the realistic and social problems of the Indian society, such as poverty, caste, gender, etc.
- Rabindranath Tagore, who wrote poems, novels, short stories, and essays in Bengali and English, which reflect his humanistic and universal vision, and earned him the Nobel Prize in Literature in 1913.
- Saadat Hasan Manto, who wrote short stories and essays in Urdu, which explore the dark and controversial aspects of the human psyche, such as sexuality, violence, partition, etc.

Persian Literature in India

- Persian literature is the literary expression of the Persian language and culture, which originated in Iran and spread to other regions of the Persianate world, including India.
- Persian literature in India began with the rise of Persian-speaking people to the throne of the Delhi Sultanate in the 13th century, which resulted in the spread of the Persian language as the official and literary language of India.
- Persian literature in India reached its peak under the Mughal Empire, which ruled most of India from the 16th to the 18th century. The Mughal emperors and nobles patronized Persian poets, historians, and scholars, who produced works of high quality and diversity.
- Persian literature in India reflected the thought, social structure, culture, and political institutions of the medieval period, as well as the spirit of the age. Persian literary sources provide valuable insights into the history, religion, art, and science of India.
- Persian literature in India also influenced and was influenced by other literary traditions, such as Sanskrit, Arabic, Turkish, and Bengali. Persian literature in India created a rich and diverse legacy that is still appreciated and studied today.

Urdu Literature in India

- Urdu literature is the literature written in the Urdu language, which is spoken by the Muslims of Pakistan and northern India .
- Urdu literature is influenced by the Persian, Arabic, and Turkish languages, as well as the local languages of the Indian subcontinent, such as Hindi, Punjabi, Bengali, and Sindhi.
- Urdu literature is mainly known for its poetry, especially the forms of ghazal and nazm, which are lyrical expressions of love, longing, and mysticism. Some of the famous poets of Urdu literature are Mirza Ghalib, Mir Taqi Mir, Allama Iqbal, Faiz Ahmed Faiz, and Ahmad Faraz.
- Urdu literature also includes prose genres, such as novels, short stories, essays, and biographies. Some of the notable prose writers of Urdu literature are Premchand, Saadat Hasan Manto, Ismat Chughtai, Qurratulain Hyder, and Khushwant Singh.
- Urdu literature has a rich and diverse history, spanning from the medieval period to the modern era, and reflecting the social, political, and cultural changes of the Indian subcontinent. Urdu literature has also contributed to the development of other literary traditions, such as Hindi literature, Urdu-Hindi literature, and Indo-Anglian literature.
- Urdu literature is a valuable source of knowledge, insight, and inspiration for anyone interested in the language, culture, and history of the Indian subcontinent.

Hindi Literature

Hindi literature is the literature written in the Hindi language, which includes various dialects and scripts. Hindi literature has a long and rich history, dating back to the 11th century. Some of the main features and genres of Hindi literature are:

- Hindi literature is influenced by Sanskrit, Prakrit, Pali, Persian, Arabic, Urdu and other languages.
- Hindi literature is divided into four periods: Adikal (early period), Bhaktikal (devotional period), Ritikal (poetic period) and Adhunik (modern period).
- Adikal (11th to 14th century) is the earliest period of Hindi literature, which includes the poetry of Apabhramśa dialects like Awadhi, Magadhi, Ardhamagadhi and Marwari. Some of the famous poets of this period are Chand Bardai, Jayasi, Kabir and Tulsidas.
- Bhaktikal (14th to 17th century) is the period of devotional literature, which reflects the religious movements of Bhakti and Sufism. Some of the prominent poets of this period are Surdas, Mirabai, Raskhan and Nanak.
- Ritikal (17th to 19th century) is the period of ornate and refined poetry, which follows the rules of Sanskrit poetics. Some of the genres of this period are Riti (courtly poetry), Rekhti (Urdu-influenced poetry), Dohe (couplets) and Kavita (lyrical poetry). Some of the notable poets of this

period are Bihari, Keshavdas, Ghananand and Brij Bhasha poets.

- Adhunik (20th century onwards) is the period of modern literature, which reflects the social, political and cultural changes of India. Some of the genres of this period are Aadhunik (modernist poetry), Pragativad (progressive poetry), Chhayavad (romantic poetry), Nayi Kahani (new short story), Natak (drama) and Alochana (criticism). Some of the eminent writers of this period are Premchand, Nirala, Mahadevi Verma, Harivansh Rai Bachchan, Munshi Premchand, Bhisham Sahni and Mahasweta Devi.

Module 3- Indian Religion, Philosophy, and Practices

- India is a land of diverse religious traditions, beliefs, and practices. Some of the major religions are:
- Hinduism is the oldest and the largest religion in India, with about 80% of the population.
- Buddhism is a religion and philosophy that was founded by Siddhartha Gautama, also known as the Buddha.
- Jainism is a religion and philosophy that was founded by Mahavira, also known as the Jina.
- Sikhism is a religion and philosophy that was founded by Guru Nanak in the 15th century CE.
- Islam is a religion and philosophy that was founded by Prophet Muhammad in the 7th century CE.
- Christianity is a religion and philosophy that was founded by Jesus Christ in the 1st century CE.
- Zoroastrianism is a religion and philosophy that was founded by Zoroaster, also known as Zarathustra.

Pre-Vedic Religion in India

- Pre-Vedic religion refers to the religious beliefs and practices of the people who lived in the Indus Valley or Harappan civilization, before the arrival of the Indo-Aryan speakers who brought the Vedic religion to India.
- The Pre-Vedic religion is also known as the Dravidian religion, as it is associated with the Dravidian-speaking people who are the native inhabitants of South India.
- The Pre-Vedic religion is characterized by the worship of nature, fertility, animals, and mother goddesses, as well as the use of seals, symbols, and scripts that have not been deciphered yet.
- The Pre-Vedic religion is also considered to be a form of Hinduism, as it shares some common elements with the later Vedic and post-Vedic Hindu traditions, such as the concept of karma, reincarnation, and yoga.
- The Pre-Vedic religion is also influenced by the interaction with other ancient cultures, such as the Mesopotamian, Egyptian, and Sumerian civilizations, as evidenced by the trade, art, and architecture of the Harappan culture.
- The Pre-Vedic religion is largely lost to history, as the Harappan civilization declined and disappeared around 1900 BCE, due to various factors such as environmental changes, invasions, and migrations.
- The Pre-Vedic religion is still a subject of research and debate among scholars, as there are many gaps and mysteries in the available evidence and sources.

Vedic Religion in India

- Vedic religion was the religion of the ancient Indo-European-speaking peoples who entered India about 1500 BCE from the region of present-day Iran.
- It takes its name from the collections of sacred texts known as the Vedas, which are the oldest stratum of religious activity in India for which there exist written materials.
- The Vedas consist of four collections of hymns, rituals, and philosophical speculations: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda, and the Atharvaveda.
- The Vedic religion was based on the worship of a variety of gods, such as Indra, Agni, Soma, Varuna, and Mitra, who were invoked through sacrificial offerings and prayers.
- The Vedic religion also had a complex social structure, divided into four classes or varnas: the Brahmins (priests), the Kshatriyas (warriors), the Vaishyas (merchants and farmers), and the Shudras (servants and laborers).
- The Vedic religion underwent several changes and developments over time, such as the emergence of new gods, such as Vishnu and Shiva, the rise of ascetic and mystical movements, such as the Upanishads and the Sramanas, and the formation of new schools of thought, such as the six orthodox darshanas and the heterodox schools of Buddhism and Jainism .
- The Vedic religion is considered to be the precursor of Hinduism, the major world religion originating on the Indian subcontinent and comprising several and varied systems of philosophy, belief, and ritual.

Buddhism in India

- Buddhism is an ancient Indian religion that originated in the 6th century BCE in the region of Magadha (now Bihar) and spread throughout northern India and beyond.
- Buddhism is based on the teachings and life experiences of Siddhartha Gautama, also known as the Buddha (the awakened one), who attained enlightenment under a bodhi tree and taught the four noble truths and the eightfold path to end suffering and achieve nirvana.
- Buddhism developed into various schools and traditions, such as Theravada, Mahayana, Vajrayana, and Zen, each with its own doctrines, practices, and scriptures. Some of the prominent Buddhist figures in India include Mahakasyapa, Nagarjuna, Asanga, Vasubandhu, Dignaga, Dharmakirti, Bodhidharma, and Padmasambhava.
- Buddhism flourished in India for over a millennium, especially under the patronage of rulers such as Ashoka, Kanishka, Harsha, and Dharmapala. Buddhism also influenced Indian culture, art, literature, philosophy, and science, and contributed to the development of Sanskrit, Pali, and other languages.

- Buddhism faced decline and persecution in India from the 8th century CE onwards, due to various factors such as the rise of Hinduism, the invasions of Muslim rulers, the corruption and degeneration of the monastic institutions, and the loss of popular support. Buddhism survived in some regions, such as Ladakh, Sikkim, and Arunachal Pradesh, and was revived in the 20th century by movements such as the Dalit Buddhist movement and the Tibetan Buddhist diaspora.

Jainism in India

- Jainism is an Indian religion that teaches the path to enlightenment is through nonviolence and reducing harm to living things .
- Jainism originated in India at least 2,500 years ago and is one of the world's oldest religions .
- Jainism has always existed and will always exist, according to Jain doctrine.
- Jains believe in the existence of eternal souls that can be liberated from the cycle of rebirth and achieve an all-knowing state called moksha .
- Jains follow the teachings of 24 spiritual leaders called tirthankaras, the last of whom was Mahavira .
- Jains practice five main vows: ahimsa (nonviolence), satya (truthfulness), asteya (non-stealing), brahmacharya (celibacy or chastity), and aparigraha (non-attachment or non-possessiveness) .
- Jains are divided into two major sects: Digambara (sky-clad) and Svetambara (white-clad), based on their differences in doctrine, practice, and tradition .
- Jains are the only religious group in India where a majority say they are members of a higher General Category caste.
- Jains constitute about 0.4% of the Indian population, with the highest concentration in the states of Maharashtra, Rajasthan, Gujarat, and Madhya Pradesh.
- Jains have contributed significantly to the fields of art, architecture, literature, philosophy, science, and social reform in India .

Six System Indian Philosophy

The six systems of Indian philosophy are:

- **Nyaya:** A school that deals with logic and epistemology. It was founded by Akshapada Gautama in the 2nd century BCE. It proposes four sources of valid knowledge: perception, inference, comparison and testimony. It also analyzes the nature of arguments, fallacies, and proofs .
- **Vaisheshika:** A school that explains the nature of reality in terms of atoms and their combinations. It was founded by Kanada in the 6th century BCE. It proposes six categories of existence: substance, quality, action, generality, particularity and inherence. It also discusses the concepts of causation, liberation and ethics .

- **Samkhya:** A school that describes the dualism of purusha (consciousness) and prakriti (matter). It was founded by Kapila in the 6th century BCE. It proposes 25 principles of reality, including the three gunas (qualities) of sattva (goodness), rajas (activity) and tamas (inertia). It also explains the evolution of the universe, the nature of the self, and the path of liberation .
- **Yoga:** A school that prescribes the practical methods of attaining the highest state of consciousness. It was founded by Patanjali in the 2nd century BCE. It is based on the Samkhya philosophy, but adds the concept of Ishvara (God) as the supreme purusha. It also outlines the eight limbs of yoga, which are: yama (restraints), niyama (observances), asana (postures), pranayama (breath control), pratyahara (withdrawal of senses), dharana (concentration), dhyana (meditation) and samadhi (absorption) .
- **Purva Mimamsa:** A school that focuses on the interpretation and application of the Vedas, the sacred scriptures of Hinduism. It was founded by Jaimini in the 3rd century BCE. It advocates the performance of rituals and duties as the means of attaining happiness and liberation. It also analyzes the nature of language, meaning and authority .
- **Uttara Mimamsa or Vedanta:** A school that expounds the philosophical essence of the Upanishads, the mystical texts of Hinduism. It was founded by Badarayana in the 2nd century BCE. It proposes three main doctrines: Brahman (the absolute reality), Atman (the individual soul) and Maya (the illusion of duality). It also has various sub-schools, such as Advaita (non-dualism), Vishishtadvaita (qualified non-dualism) and Dvaita (dualism) .

Shankaracharya and Advaita Vedanta

- Shankaracharya, also known as Adi Shankara, was an Indian philosopher and theologian who expounded the doctrine of Advaita Vedanta, one of the six orthodox schools of Hindu philosophy.
- Advaita Vedanta is a non-dualistic system of thought that asserts the identity of the individual self (atman) and the supreme reality (brahman).
- Shankaracharya was born in the 8th century CE in a Brahmin family in Kaladi, Kerala. He renounced the worldly life at a very young age and became a wandering ascetic.
- He traveled across India, engaging in debates with scholars of various schools of thought, such as Buddhism, Jainism, Mimamsa, Nyaya, and Vaishnavism. He established his authority as a master of the Vedas and the Upanishads, the sacred scriptures of Hinduism.
- He founded four mathas (monasteries) in the four corners of India, namely Sringeri in the south, Dwarka in the west, Puri in the east, and Badrinath in the north. These mathas became the centers of learning and propagation of Advaita Vedanta.
- He also composed many works, such as commentaries on the Upanishads,

the Brahma Sutras, and the Bhagavad Gita, as well as original treatises, such as the Vivekachudamani, the Upadesasahasri, and the Aparokshanubhuti. He also wrote devotional hymns, such as the Bhaja Govindam, the Nirvana Shatakam, and the Saundarya Lahari.

- He died at the age of 32 in Kedarnath, Uttarakhand. His disciples and followers continued his legacy and spread his teachings throughout India and beyond.
- He is regarded as one of the greatest philosophers and saints of India, and his influence on Indian thought and culture is immense. He is revered by the followers of Advaita Vedanta, and also respected by other schools of Hinduism and other religions.

Various Philosophical Doctrines in India

- Indian philosophy refers to the systems of thought and reflection that were developed by the civilizations of the Indian subcontinent.
- Indian philosophy is characterized by its diversity, continuity, synthesis, and spiritual orientation .
- Indian philosophy accepts the authority of ancient philosophers and innovations are represented as extensions of older systems of thought.
- Indian philosophy shares many common themes such as the self or soul (atman), works (karma), liberation (moksha), and the cycle of birth and death (samsara).
- Indian philosophy can be broadly classified into two categories: orthodox (astika) and unorthodox (nastika) .
- Orthodox schools accept the authority of the Vedas, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism, while unorthodox schools reject or question the Vedas .
- The six orthodox schools of Indian philosophy are: Sankhya, Yoga, Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Mimamsa, and Vedanta .
- Sankhya is a dualistic system that posits two independent realities: purusha (consciousness) and prakriti (matter).
- Yoga is a system that is similar to Sankhya but accepts a personal god and focuses on yogic practices for achieving liberation.
- Nyaya is a system that emphasizes logic and epistemology as the means of acquiring valid knowledge.
- Vaisheshika is a system that analyzes reality into six categories: substance, quality, action, generality, particularity, and inherence.
- Mimamsa is a system that interprets the Vedas and the rituals prescribed in them as the means of attaining dharma (duty) and moksha (liberation).
- Vedanta is a system that expounds the metaphysical and ethical teachings of the Upanishads, the philosophical portions of the Vedas.
- The three unorthodox schools of Indian philosophy are: Buddhism, Jainism, and Charvaka .
- Buddhism is a system that rejects the concept of atman and teaches the four noble truths and the eightfold path as the way to end suffering and attain nirvana.

- Jainism is a system that affirms the existence of atman but denies the authority of the Vedas and teaches the doctrine of ahimsa (non-violence) and anekantavada (many-sidedness) as the means of achieving liberation.
- Charvaka is a system that denies the existence of anything beyond the material world and advocates hedonism and skepticism as the only rational way of life.

Heterodox Sects in India

- Heterodox sects are those that do not accept the authority of the Vedas, the sacred scriptures of Hinduism, and challenge the orthodox Brahmanical traditions.
- Heterodox sects emerged in the 6th century BCE as a result of social, economic, political and religious changes in India, such as urbanization, trade, rise of new classes, and dissatisfaction with the ritualistic and hierarchical Vedic religion.
- Heterodox sects include the following:
 - Jainism: Founded by Mahavira, the 24th Tirthankara, Jainism teaches the doctrine of ahimsa (non-violence), anekantavada (many-sidedness of truth), and aparigraha (non-attachment). Jainism rejects the idea of a creator God and believes in the cycle of rebirth and karma. Jainism has two main sects: Digambara (sky-clad) and Svetambara (white-clad).
 - Buddhism: Founded by Siddhartha Gautama, the Buddha, Buddhism teaches the Four Noble Truths, the Eightfold Path, and the concept of nirvana (liberation from suffering). Buddhism rejects the authority of the Vedas, the caste system, and the ritual sacrifices. Buddhism has many branches, such as Theravada, Mahayana, and Vajrayana.
 - Ajivika: Founded by Makkhali Gosala, Ajivika is a materialist and fatalist school of thought that denies the existence of free will, karma, and rebirth. Ajivika believes that everything is predetermined by cosmic forces called niyati (destiny) and svabhava (nature). Ajivika is considered to be extinct as a sect.
 - Carvaka: Also known as Lokayata, Carvaka is a radical materialist and atheist school of thought that rejects the existence of anything beyond the four elements (earth, water, fire, and air). Carvaka denies the validity of inference, testimony, and revelation as sources of knowledge and advocates sensual pleasure as the only goal of life. Carvaka is also considered to be extinct as a sect.

Bhakti Movement in India

- The Bhakti movement was a significant religious movement in medieval Hinduism that sought to bring religious reforms to all strata of society by

adopting the method of devotion to achieve salvation.

- The movement preached against the caste system, ritualism, idolatry, and social inequalities, and emphasized the importance of a personal and direct relationship with God .
- The movement originated in South India in the 7th-8th centuries CE with the Alvars (Vaishnavite saints) and the Nayanars (Shaivite saints), who composed devotional hymns in Tamil and visited various sacred shrines .
- The movement spread to North India in the 12th-13th centuries CE with the influence of the Bhakti saints such as Ramananda, Kabir, Nanak, Tulsidas, Surdas, Mirabai, and Chaitanya, who propagated their teachings in the vernacular languages such as Hindi, Punjabi, Bengali, and Marathi .
- The movement had a profound impact on the religious and cultural life of India, as it fostered a spirit of tolerance, harmony, and universal brotherhood among the people of different faiths and sects .
- The movement also enriched the literature, music, art, and architecture of India, as it inspired the creation of various forms of poetry, songs, paintings, temples, and monuments that expressed the devotion and love of the Bhakti saints and their followers .

Sufi movement in India

- Sufism is a mystical branch of Islam that emphasizes the direct experience of God through love, devotion, and ethical conduct.
- Sufism originated in the Middle East and Central Asia in the early centuries of Islam, and spread to India through the efforts of various Sufi saints and orders (silsilas).
- The Sufi movement in India began in the 13th century and reached its peak in the 15th and 16th centuries, during the Delhi Sultanate and the Mughal Empire.
- The Sufi movement had a significant impact on the religious, social, and cultural life of India. It promoted harmony and tolerance among different religious communities, especially Hindus and Muslims. It also enriched the Indian literature, music, art, and architecture with its mystical and poetic expressions.
- Some of the prominent Sufi orders in India were the Chishti, Suhrawardi, Qadiri, Naqshbandi, and Shattari. Each order had its own distinctive doctrines, practices, and rituals, but they all shared a common goal of seeking union with God.
- Some of the famous Sufi saints in India were Khwaja Moinuddin Chishti, Sheikh Nizamuddin Auliya, Amir Khusrau, Baba Farid, Sheikh Bahauddin Zakariya, Sheikh Shihabuddin Suhrawardi, Sheikh Abdul Qadir Jilani, Sheikh Ahmad Sirhindi, and Shah Waliullah. They attracted millions of followers from all walks of life, and their shrines (dargahs) are still revered by many people today.

Socio religious reform movement of 19th century in India

- Socio religious reform movement of 19th century in India refers to the wave of reforming activities that aimed to improve the social, religious and cultural conditions of the Indian society under the influence of western education and liberal ideas.
- The movement started in Bengal and soon spread to other parts of India, involving different samajas, societies and organisations that challenged the existing practices and beliefs of Hinduism, Islam and other religions.
- The main causes of the movement were:
 - The impact of British rule and western education, which exposed the Indians to the ideals of rationalism, humanism, democracy and nationalism.
 - The dissatisfaction and disillusionment with the orthodox and decadent aspects of the Indian religions, such as caste system, idolatry, polytheism, rituals, superstitions, priesthood, child marriage, sati, etc .
 - The need to reform the Indian society and culture in order to cope with the challenges of modernisation and colonisation.
 - The influence of the Christian missionaries and the Orientalists, who criticised the Indian religions and also appreciated the ancient scriptures and literature of India.
- The main types of the movement were:
 - The reformist movements, which aimed to reform the existing religions by purifying them from the corruptions and distortions, and by reviving the original teachings and values of the scriptures. Examples of such movements are Brahmo Samaj, Arya Samaj, Prarthana Samaj, Aligarh Movement, etc .
 - The revivalist movements, which aimed to revive the glory and vitality of the ancient religions by rejecting the western influence and by emphasising the superiority and uniqueness of the Indian religions. Examples of such movements are Ramakrishna Mission, Theosophical Society, Hindu Mahasabha, etc .
 - The radical movements, which aimed to create new religions or sects by breaking away from the existing religions and by adopting new doctrines and practices. Examples of such movements are Brahmo Dharma, Radhasoami Satsang, Ahmadiyya Movement, etc .
- The main features of the movement were:
 - The movement was led by the educated and enlightened sections of the Indian society, such as the social reformers, intellectuals, journalists, lawyers, etc.
 - The movement was influenced by both the western and the eastern sources of knowledge and inspiration, such as the Enlightenment, the French Revolution, the American War of Independence, the Vedas, the Upanishads, the Quran, the Bible, etc.
 - The movement was marked by the use of various methods and medi-

- ums, such as the printing press, the newspapers, the journals, the books, the lectures, the debates, the petitions, the legislation, the education, the social service, etc.
- The movement had a significant impact on the Indian society and culture, such as the abolition of sati, the widow remarriage, the women education, the social equality, the religious tolerance, the national awakening, etc .

Modern religious practices in India

- India is a diverse and secular country, with no official religion and a constitution that guarantees freedom of religion to all citizens.
- The major religions practiced in India are Hinduism, Islam, Christianity, Sikhism, Buddhism and Jainism. Hinduism is the dominant religion, with about 80% of the population identifying as Hindu .
- Religion plays a significant role in the lives of most Indians, influencing their culture, politics, economy and social relations.
- Some of the common religious practices in India are:
 - Visiting houses of worship, such as temples, mosques, churches, gurdwaras and monasteries. Most Indians visit their places of worship at least once a week, and some do so daily.
 - Giving to charitable causes, such as feeding the poor, donating to religious institutions, supporting social movements and helping the needy. Most Indians give to charity at least once a year, and some do so monthly or weekly.
 - Celebrating festivals, such as Diwali, Eid, Christmas, Vaisakhi, Buddha Purnima and Mahavir Jayanti. These festivals mark important religious events, such as the birth, enlightenment or death of a deity or a prophet, or the victory of good over evil. They are celebrated with rituals, prayers, offerings, fireworks, lights, sweets and gifts.
 - Performing rituals, such as puja, namaz, mass, kirtan and meditation. These rituals involve worshiping, praising, thanking or seeking guidance from a divine being or a sacred object. They are performed individually or collectively, at home or in public, with or without the help of a priest or a leader.
 - Following dietary rules, such as vegetarianism, halal, kosher, langar and ahimsa. These rules prescribe what foods are allowed or forbidden for religious reasons, such as purity, compassion, health or solidarity. They vary across different religions, sects and regions.
 - Wearing symbols, such as tilak, bindi, cross, khanda, om and swastika. These symbols represent the identity, beliefs, values or aspirations of a religious group or an individual. They are worn on the body, clothes, jewelry or accessories, or displayed on buildings, vehicles or objects.

- India's religious groups also share several religious practices and beliefs, such as:
 - Belief in karma, reincarnation, heaven and hell, and the existence of supernatural beings, such as gods, goddesses, angels, demons, spirits and ancestors.
 - Respect for cows, rivers, trees, mountains and other natural elements, as they are considered sacred, holy or manifestations of the divine.
 - Participation in yoga, ayurveda, astrology, numerology and other forms of alternative medicine, spirituality or divination, as they are believed to enhance physical, mental and emotional well-being.
 - Adoption of practices or customs from other religions, such as celebrating festivals, visiting shrines, wearing symbols or reciting prayers, as a sign of tolerance, curiosity or syncretism.

Module 4-Science, Management and Indian Knowledge System

This module covers the following topics:

- **Astronomy in India:** The development of astronomy in India from the Vedic period to the modern era, the contributions of Indian astronomers such as Aryabhata, Varahamihira, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, and others, the concepts of sidereal and tropical zodiacs, the calculation of eclipses, the heliocentric and geocentric models, the astronomical instruments such as the gnomon, the armillary sphere, the astrolabe, and the observatories built by Jai Singh II.
- **Chemistry in India:** The origin and evolution of chemistry in India, the classification of substances into five elements (panchabhuta), the concepts of alchemy and metallurgy, the production of various metals, alloys, minerals, dyes, perfumes, medicines, and cosmetics, the contributions of Indian chemists such as Nagarjuna, Kanada, Charaka, Sushruta, and others, the techniques of distillation, calcination, sublimation, and extraction.
- **Mathematics in India:** The history and development of mathematics in India from the Indus Valley Civilization to the colonial period, the contributions of Indian mathematicians such as Baudhayana, Pingala, Panini, Katyayana, Apastamba, Shulba Sutras, Sulba Sutras, Jaina mathematics, Buddhist mathematics, Aryabhata, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, Mahavira, Madhava, Nilakantha, and others, the concepts of zero, decimal system, place value system, fractions, algebra, geometry, trigonometry, calculus, combinatorics, and number theory.
- **Physics in India:** The origin and development of physics in India, the philosophical foundations of physics in the schools of Samkhya, Nyaya, Vaisheshika, and Vedanta, the concepts of atomism, causation, motion, force, gravity, sound, light, heat, electricity, and magnetism, the contributions of Indian physicists such as Kanada, Gautama, Udayana, Pakudha Katyayana, Patanjali, Bharata, Varahamihira, Aryabhata, Brahmagupta,

Bhaskara, and others, the devices and experiments such as the pinhole camera, the water clock, the balance, the thermometer, the electroscope, and the compass.

- Agriculture in India: The history and evolution of agriculture in India from the Neolithic period to the present day, the diversity of crops, soils, climates, and irrigation systems, the concepts of crop rotation, fertilization, pest control, and animal husbandry, the contributions of Indian agriculturists such as Kashyapa, Varahamihira, Surapala, Amarakosha, and others, the agricultural practices and innovations such as the plough, the seed drill, the transplantation, the terrace farming, the organic farming, and the green revolution.
- Medicine in India: The origin and development of medicine in India from the ancient times to the modern era, the classification of medicine into Ayurveda, Siddha, Unani, and Homeopathy, the concepts of health, disease, diagnosis, treatment, prevention, and hygiene, the contributions of Indian physicians such as Charaka, Sushruta, Vagbhata, Nagarjuna, Madhava, and others, the branches and specialties of medicine such as surgery, anatomy, physiology, pharmacology, pathology, ophthalmology, dentistry, and psychiatry, the medical texts and treatises such as the Charaka Samhita, the Sushruta Samhita, the Ashtanga Hridaya, the Rasashastra, and the Yoga Sutras.
- Metallurgy in India: The history and advancement of metallurgy in India from the Bronze Age to the modern times, the production and use of various metals and alloys such as copper, bronze, iron, steel, zinc, tin, lead, gold, silver, and brass, the concepts of smelting, forging, casting, welding, tempering, and corrosion, the contributions of Indian metallurgists such as Nagarjuna, Dhundiraja, Raghunatha, and others, the metallurgical artifacts and monuments such as the iron pillar of Delhi, the bronze statue of Nataraja, the wootz steel, and the zinc distillation apparatus.
- Geography in India: The origin and growth of geography in India from the Vedic period to the colonial era, the description and classification of the earth

Astronomy in India and Ancient India

- Astronomy in India has a long history stretching from pre-historic to modern times. Some of the earliest roots of Indian astronomy can be dated to the period of Indus Valley civilisation or earlier.
- Astronomy in ancient India developed to a sophisticated level as the sages of ancient India were keen observers of the sky generation after generation. They recorded their observations and calculations in various texts, such as the Vedas, the Puranas, the Siddhantas, the Aryabhatiya, the Surya Siddhanta, and the Brihat Samhita.
- Astronomy in ancient India can be divided into two major classes. From the third-century BCE, India started having contact with Greece and other nations outside the subcontinent. So, the basic structure of Indian astron-

omy had outside influence although the astronomical concepts and the major parameters were India's own.

- The first class of Indian astronomy is called Vedic astronomy, which is based on the Vedas, the oldest scriptures of Hinduism. Vedic astronomy deals with the cosmology, mythology, and ritual aspects of the celestial phenomena. It also contains some astronomical observations and measurements, such as the lunar and solar eclipses, the solstices, and the equinoxes.
- The second class of Indian astronomy is called Siddhantic astronomy, which is based on the Siddhantas, or the treatises on astronomy. Siddhantic astronomy deals with the mathematical and computational aspects of the celestial phenomena. It also contains some astronomical theories and models, such as the heliocentric, geocentric, and hybrid systems, the planetary motions, the precession of the equinoxes, and the calculation of the calendar.
- Some of the most prominent astronomers of ancient India are Aryabhata, Varahamihira, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, and Lalla. They made significant contributions to the fields of astronomy, mathematics, and astrology. They also influenced the development of astronomy in other regions, such as Islamic and Byzantine astronomy.

Chemistry in India and Ancient India

Chemistry is the science of matter and its interactions. Chemistry in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the ancient times. Here are some points to note about chemistry in India and ancient India:

- Chemistry in ancient India was called **Rasayana** in Sanskrit, the language in vogue. Rasayana derived its name from **Rasa**, which means **extract**, maybe from roots, leaves, and stems of plants.
- Chemistry in ancient India was not confined but found development in a variety of practical activities, such as metallurgy, medicine, alchemy, cosmetics, perfumery, dyeing, agriculture, and warfare.
- Chemistry in ancient India was closely linked to other branches of knowledge, such as astronomy, mathematics, philosophy, and religion. For example, the concept of **Panchamahabhuta** (five elements) was a common framework for understanding the nature of matter and its transformations.
- Chemistry in ancient India was influenced by and contributed to the cultures and civilizations of other regions, such as Mesopotamia, Egypt, Greece, China, and Persia. For example, India was a major source of **spices, aromatics, dyes, gems, and metals** for the ancient world.
- Chemistry in ancient India reached its peak during the **Gupta period** (4th-6th century CE), when many texts and treatises on chemistry were composed by eminent scholars, such as **Nagarjuna, Kanada, Varahamihira, Charaka, and Sushruta**. These texts covered topics such as

mercury, gold, iron, steel, copper, zinc, tin, lead, silver, alloys, sulfur, salts, acids, alkalis, minerals, ores, plants, animals, medicines, poisons, and elixirs .

- Chemistry in ancient India also developed many **instruments and techniques** for chemical experiments, such as **crucibles, furnaces, retorts, distillation, sublimation, calcination, dissolution, filtration, crystallization, precipitation, titration, colorimetry, and electrolysis** .
- Chemistry in ancient India declined after the **Islamic invasion** (11th-13th century CE), when many libraries, universities, and temples were destroyed and many scholars were killed or exiled. However, some aspects of chemistry in ancient India survived and influenced the **Arabic, Persian, and European** chemistry in the later centuries .

Mathematics in India and Ancient India

Mathematics is the science of numbers, shapes, patterns and logic. It has been developed and refined by various civilizations over thousands of years. In this section, we will briefly outline some of the main achievements and contributions of mathematics in India and ancient India.

- Mathematics in ancient India was called ‘Ganita’, which means ‘the science of calculation’. It was mainly used for numerical computation and geometric measurement, as well as for astronomy, astrology, music, architecture and other fields.
- The earliest evidence of mathematical knowledge in India comes from the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1900 BCE), which had a sophisticated system of weights and measures, a decimal place-value notation, and geometric designs on seals and pottery.
- The Vedic period (c. 1500-500 BCE) saw the development of the Vedas, the oldest scriptures of Hinduism, which contain various hymns, rituals and cosmological speculations. The Vedanga Jyotisha, one of the six auxiliary disciplines of the Vedas, deals with astronomy and calendar calculations. It also contains some mathematical concepts, such as the use of fractions, square roots, geometric progressions, and the approximation of pi.
- The classical period (c. 400-1200 CE) witnessed the flourishing of mathematics in India, with many influential scholars and works. Some of the notable names are Aryabhata, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara II, and Varahamihira. They made significant contributions to various branches of mathematics, such as algebra, arithmetic, trigonometry, geometry, and combinatorics.
- Some of the major achievements of Indian mathematics in this period include:
 - The invention of the concept of zero and the use of the decimal place-value system, which revolutionized the representation and calculation of numbers.
 - The discovery of the rules for operating with negative numbers, frac-

- tions, and irrational numbers, as well as the solution of quadratic, cubic, and indeterminate equations.
- The development of the sine, cosine, and versine functions, and the use of trigonometric tables and formulas for solving astronomical and geometric problems.
- The formulation of the Pythagorean theorem, the area of a triangle, the volume of a sphere, and the value of pi, among other geometric results.
- The study of combinatorial problems, such as the enumeration of permutations, combinations, and partitions, and the use of the binomial theorem and Pascal's triangle.
- Mathematics in India continued to develop and diversify in the medieval and modern periods, with influences from Islamic, Persian, and European mathematics. Some of the notable mathematicians and works of this period are Madhava, Nilakantha, Srinivasa Ramanujan, and the Kerala school of astronomy and mathematics.
- Mathematics in India has had a profound impact on the world, especially in the fields of astronomy, numerals, algebra, and trigonometry. It has also inspired and enriched the mathematical traditions of other cultures, such as China, Arabia, and Europe.

Physics in India and Ancient India

Physics is the branch of science that deals with the nature and properties of matter and energy. Physics in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the ancient times. Some of the main topics and achievements of physics in India and ancient India are:

- **Elements and atoms:** Indian philosophers proposed various theories of elements and atoms, based on observation and logic. The Nyaya and Vaisheshika schools of thought identified five basic elements: earth, water, fire, air, and ether. They also postulated that these elements were composed of indivisible and eternal atoms (parmanu), which could combine in different ways to form complex substances. The Buddhist atomists Dharmakirti and Dignaga further developed the concept of atoms and their properties, such as shape, size, motion, and causality. They also suggested that atoms had a dual nature of being both particles and waves, which is similar to the modern quantum theory .
- **Energy and radiation:** Indian thinkers also explored the concept of energy and its relation to mass and radiation. The Vedas, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism, contain many references to energy (shakti) and its manifestations, such as heat, light, sound, and electricity. The Upanishads, the philosophical texts of Hinduism, describe the equivalence of energy and mass, and the conservation of energy in the universe. The Sankhya school of thought proposed that energy was the fundamental principle of creation, and that it could be divided into two types: active

(rajas) and passive (tamas). The active energy was responsible for motion, change, and evolution, while the passive energy was responsible for stability, inertia, and dissolution. The Sankhya also recognized the existence of electromagnetic radiation, and classified it into seven types, corresponding to the seven colors of the rainbow.

- **Astronomy and cosmology:** Indian astronomers made significant contributions to the study of the celestial bodies and their motions. They developed sophisticated mathematical methods and instruments for measuring and predicting the positions and movements of the sun, moon, planets, and stars. They also calculated the size and shape of the earth, the distance and diameter of the moon, the length of the solar and lunar eclipses, and the duration of the sidereal and tropical years. They also proposed various models of the structure and origin of the universe, such as the cyclic model, the expanding and contracting model, and the multiverse model. Some of the notable Indian astronomers and their works are: Aryabhata, who wrote the *Aryabhatiya*, a treatise on astronomy and mathematics; Varahamihira, who wrote the *Panchasiddhantika*, a summary of five astronomical schools; Brahmagupta, who wrote the *Brahmasphutasiddhanta*, a work on algebra and astronomy; Bhaskara, who wrote the *Siddhanta Shiromani*, a comprehensive work on astronomy and mathematics; and Nilakantha Somayaji, who wrote the *Tantrasangraha*, a work on the heliocentric model of the solar system .

Agriculture in India and Ancient India

Agriculture is the cultivation of plants and animals for food, fiber, fuel, and other purposes. Agriculture is one of the oldest and most important human activities, as it provides the basis for food security, livelihoods, and civilization. India is one of the world's largest and most diverse agricultural regions, with a long and rich history of farming practices and innovations.

Some of the main points to know about agriculture in India and ancient India are:

- **Ancient Indian agriculture** began as early as 9000 BCE in the Indus Valley Civilization, where people cultivated wheat, barley, peas, lentils, and cotton, and domesticated cattle, sheep, goats, and water buffalo. They also developed irrigation systems, plows, and granaries to store their surplus crops .
- **Ancient South Indian agriculture** was equally prosperous, as the Tamil people cultivated a wide range of crops such as rice, sugarcane, millets, black pepper, various grains, coconuts, beans, cotton, plantain, tamarind, and sandalwood. They also grew jackfruit, coconut, palm, areca, and plantain trees, and traded their produce with other regions and countries.
- **The Ganges River valley** became another major agricultural region

after about 1500 BCE, as the Vedic people migrated from the northwest and settled in the fertile plains. They grew rice, wheat, barley, millets, pulses, oilseeds, and sugarcane, and raised cattle, horses, elephants, and poultry. They also developed iron tools, plows, and wells to improve their farming efficiency.

- **The Mauryan Empire** (322-185 BCE) was the first pan-Indian political entity that unified most of the subcontinent under a centralized administration. The Mauryan rulers promoted agriculture as the main source of revenue and welfare, and implemented various reforms and regulations to improve the productivity and quality of the land and crops. They also built roads, canals, and reservoirs to facilitate trade and irrigation.
- **The Mughal Empire** (1526-1857 CE) was another influential dynasty that ruled over most of India and parts of Afghanistan and Pakistan. The Mughal rulers were patrons of agriculture and introduced many new crops and techniques from Central Asia, Persia, and Europe, such as maize, potatoes, tomatoes, chilies, tobacco, cotton, and silk. They also improved the land revenue system, the irrigation network, and the agricultural markets.
- **Modern Indian agriculture** is the result of centuries of evolution and adaptation to the diverse climatic, geographic, and socio-economic conditions of the subcontinent. India is the world's largest producer of milk, pulses, spices, and jute, and the second-largest producer of rice, wheat, sugarcane, cotton, and fruits and vegetables. India also has a large and varied livestock sector, with the world's largest population of cattle, buffalo, goats, and sheep. India's agriculture sector employs about 60% of the population and contributes about 17% of the GDP.

Some of the main challenges and opportunities for Indian agriculture in the present and future are:

- **Climate change** is a major threat to the sustainability and resilience of Indian agriculture, as it affects the availability and quality of water, soil, and biodiversity, and increases the risks of droughts, floods, pests, and diseases. Indian farmers need to adopt more climate-smart and adaptive practices and technologies, such as crop diversification, conservation agriculture, organic farming, rainwater harvesting, and precision irrigation.
- **Food security and nutrition** are key goals for Indian agriculture, as the country faces the dual burden of hunger and malnutrition on one hand, and obesity and overnutrition on the other. Indian agriculture needs to produce more and better food for its growing and changing population, while ensuring the access and affordability of food for all. Indian agriculture also needs to enhance the nutritional quality and diversity of its crops and products, and reduce the post-harvest losses and food waste.
- **Agricultural innovation and extension** are essential for improving the productivity and profitability of Indian agriculture, as well as its environmental and social impacts. Indian agriculture needs to harness the potential of science, technology, and innovation, such as biotechnology, digital agriculture, agro-ecology, and agroforestry, to develop and disseminate

inate improved seeds, inputs, practices, and services. Indian agriculture also needs to

Medicine in India and Ancient India

- Medicine in India is a diverse and ancient field of knowledge and practice that encompasses various systems of health care, such as Ayurveda, Siddha, Unani, Yoga, Naturopathy, and Homeopathy.
- Ayurveda is the most ancient system of Indian medicine, which is based on the Vedas, the sacred texts of Hinduism. Ayurveda means “the science of life” and it aims to balance the three doshas (vata, pitta, and kapha) that govern the body, mind, and spirit .
- Ayurveda has eight branches: internal medicine, surgery, ear, nose, and throat, pediatrics, toxicology, rejuvenation, aphrodisiacs, and psychiatry. Ayurveda also uses various herbs, minerals, metals, animal products, and surgical procedures for diagnosis and treatment .
- Surgery was a well-developed branch of Ayurveda, and the ancient Indian surgeon Sushruta is considered the father of surgery. He wrote the Sushruta Samhita, a comprehensive text on surgery, anatomy, pathology, and therapeutics. He described various surgical instruments, techniques, and procedures, such as rhinoplasty, lithotomy, cataract extraction, and caesarean section .
- Another ancient Indian physician was Charaka, who wrote the Charaka Samhita, a text on internal medicine, pharmacology, and ethics. He classified diseases into three categories: those caused by imbalance of the doshas, those caused by external factors, and those caused by karma. He also described the principles of diagnosis, prognosis, prevention, and treatment of diseases .
- Other ancient Indian medical texts include the Ashtanga Hridaya, the Kashyapa Samhita, the Bhela Samhita, and the Harita Samhita. These texts cover various aspects of medicine, such as anatomy, physiology, pathology, pharmacology, dietetics, hygiene, and ethics .
- Medicine in India also includes other systems, such as Siddha, Unani, Yoga, Naturopathy, and Homeopathy. Siddha is a system of medicine that originated in Tamil Nadu and is based on the concept of five elements (earth, water, fire, air, and ether) and three humors (vata, pitta, and kapha). Unani is a system of medicine that originated in Greece and was influenced by Islamic and Indian medicine. It is based on the concept of four humors (blood, phlegm, yellow bile, and black bile) and four temperaments (sanguine, phlegmatic, choleric, and melancholic). Yoga is a system of physical, mental, and spiritual practices that aim to achieve harmony and union with the supreme reality. Naturopathy is a system of medicine that uses natural methods and substances to promote health and healing. Homeopathy is a system of medicine that uses highly diluted substances to stimulate the body’s own healing response .
- Medicine in India and ancient India has a rich and varied history that

reflects the diversity and complexity of the Indian culture and civilization. It has contributed to the development of medicine and health care in other parts of the world, and it continues to evolve and adapt to the changing needs and challenges of the modern society.

Metallurgy in India and Ancient India

Metallurgy is the science and art of extracting and processing metals from ores and other sources. Metallurgy in India and ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the 3rd millennium BCE. Some of the main aspects of metallurgy in India and ancient India are:

- **Copper metallurgy:** Copper was one of the first metals to be used by humans, and copper metallurgy in India dates back to the Chalcolithic societies in the subcontinent, according to spectrometric tests on copper ore samples discovered from ancient mine pits at Khetri in Rajasthan and metal samples cut from representative Harappan artefacts unearthed from Mitathal in Haryana. Copper was used for making tools, weapons, ornaments, coins, and vessels. Copper was also alloyed with tin to produce bronze, which was harder and more durable than pure copper.
- **Iron metallurgy:** Iron was another important metal in ancient India, and iron working in India may have begun as early as 1800 BCE, and that by the early 13th century BCE, iron smelting was definitely practiced on a large scale. Iron was used for making agricultural implements, weapons, armor, nails, and needles. Iron was also alloyed with carbon to produce steel, which was stronger and more resistant to corrosion than iron. Ancient Indians were masters in the production of iron and steel, and they used the direct reduction method of iron extraction, which involved heating iron ore with charcoal in a furnace and removing the slag and impurities. They also developed various techniques of forging, welding, quenching, and tempering iron and steel to achieve different properties and shapes.
- **Zinc metallurgy:** Zinc was another metal that was extracted in India as early as in the 4th to 3rd century BCE. Zinc production may have begun in India, and ancient northwestern India is the earliest known civilization that produced zinc on an industrial scale. Zinc was used for making brass, which is an alloy of copper and zinc, and for coating iron to prevent rusting. Zinc was also used for making batteries, cosmetics, medicines, and paints. Zinc was extracted by a unique distillation technique, which involved heating zinc ore with charcoal in a closed vessel and condensing the zinc vapor in a separate vessel.
- **Gold and silver metallurgy:** Gold and silver were also known and used in ancient India, and they were among the first metals to be discovered by humans. Gold and silver were used for making jewelry, coins, vessels, and ornaments. Gold and silver were also valued for their aesthetic and religious significance, and they were often associated with gods and

goddesses. Gold and silver were extracted by various methods, such as panning, amalgamation, cupellation, and refining.

- **Other metals and alloys:** Apart from the above-mentioned metals, ancient Indians also knew and used other metals and alloys, such as lead, tin, mercury, arsenic, antimony, and bismuth. Lead and tin were used for making pewter, solder, and glazes. Mercury was used for making amalgams, thermometers, and medicines. Arsenic, antimony, and bismuth were used for making alloys, pigments, and cosmetics. Ancient Indians also developed various alloys, such as panchaloha (five metals), which is an alloy of copper, zinc, tin, lead, and iron, and ashtadhatu (eight metals), which is an alloy of gold, silver, copper, zinc, lead, tin, iron, and mercury. These alloys were used for making idols, statues, and musical instruments.

Geography in India and Ancient India

- India is a large and diverse country in South Asia, with a land area of 3.28 million square kilometers and a population of 1.3 billion people.
- India is bounded by the Himalayan mountains in the north, the Indian Ocean in the south, the Arabian Sea in the west, and the Bay of Bengal in the east.
- India has a variety of landforms, such as plains, plateaus, hills, deserts, and islands. The Indo-Gangetic Plain is the most fertile and densely populated region of India, where the rivers Ganga, Yamuna, and Indus flow. The Deccan Plateau is a large elevated region in the south, with rich mineral resources and diverse flora and fauna. The Thar Desert is a dry and arid area in the northwest, where sand dunes and salt lakes are common. The Andaman and Nicobar Islands are a group of islands in the Bay of Bengal, with tropical forests and coral reefs.
- India has a monsoon climate, which means that it has distinct wet and dry seasons. The southwest monsoon brings heavy rains from June to September, while the northeast monsoon brings dry and cold winds from October to February. The average temperature in India ranges from 10°C to 40°C, depending on the region and season. The rainfall varies from less than 100 mm in the desert to more than 3000 mm in the northeast.
- Ancient India was one of the earliest civilizations in the world, along with Mesopotamia, Egypt, China, and Mesoamerica. Ancient India developed its own culture, religion, literature, art, architecture, science, and mathematics, which influenced many other regions and peoples.
- Ancient India was divided into many kingdoms and empires, such as the Harappan civilization, the Mauryan empire, the Gupta empire, and the Mughal empire. Some of the famous rulers of ancient India were Ashoka, Chandragupta Maurya, Samudragupta, Akbar, and Shivaji.
- Ancient India was also known for its trade and commerce, which connected it with other parts of Asia, Africa, and Europe. Some of the important trade routes of ancient India were the Silk Road, the Spice Route, and the Indian Ocean trade network. Some of the valuable commodities that

ancient India exported were spices, textiles, gems, metals, and ivory.

Biology in India and Ancient India

Biology is the study of living organisms and their interactions with the environment. Biology in India and Ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic period (3000-8000 BCE) and beyond. Some of the main aspects of biology in India and Ancient India are:

- **Vedic biology:** The Vedas are a collection of four Sanskrit texts that contain hymns, rituals, and cosmology. The Vedas also have references to plants and animals, their classification, morphology, physiology, ecology, and medicinal uses. The Vedas recorded 740 plants and 250 animals, proving that the Vedic people had observed and documented the diversity of life. The Vedas also described the concept of prana, the vital force or life energy that pervades all living beings.
- **Ayurveda:** Ayurveda is the ancient system of medicine and health that originated in India and is still practiced today. Ayurveda is based on the theory of five elements (earth, water, fire, air, and ether) and three doshas (vata, pitta, and kapha), which are the basic principles of life and health. Ayurveda uses herbs, minerals, animal products, diet, and lifestyle to prevent and treat diseases. Ayurveda also has a detailed knowledge of human anatomy, physiology, pathology, pharmacology, and surgery.
- **Sushruta Samhita:** Sushruta Samhita is one of the oldest and most influential texts of Ayurveda, written by Sushruta, a physician and surgeon who lived around the 6th century BCE. Sushruta Samhita is a comprehensive treatise on surgery, medicine, anatomy, and other aspects of biology. Sushruta Samhita describes 1120 diseases, 700 medicinal plants, 64 preparations from mineral sources, and 57 preparations from animal sources. Sushruta Samhita also gives a detailed account of human anatomy, based on dissection and observation of cadavers. Sushruta Samhita also describes various surgical procedures, such as rhinoplasty, lithotomy, cataract extraction, and caesarean section.
- **Charaka Samhita:** Charaka Samhita is another important text of Ayurveda, written by Charaka, a physician who lived around the 2nd century BCE. Charaka Samhita is a comprehensive treatise on medicine, physiology, pathology, diagnosis, and treatment. Charaka Samhita covers 8 branches of medicine, namely internal medicine, surgery, pediatrics, toxicology, psychiatry, geriatrics, rejuvenation, and sexual health. Charaka Samhita also gives a detailed account of human physiology, based on the concept of srotas, or channels that carry fluids and energy throughout the body. Charaka Samhita also describes various diseases, their causes, symptoms, and treatments.
- **Other contributions:** Apart from the Vedas and the Ayurvedic texts,

there are many other sources of biological knowledge in India and Ancient India, such as the epics, the Puranas, the Buddhist and Jain texts, the works of poets, philosophers, and scientists, and the archaeological evidence. Some of the notable contributions are:

- The concept of karma, or the law of cause and effect, which implies that the actions of living beings have consequences for their present and future lives.
- The concept of reincarnation, or the cycle of birth and death, which implies that living beings have a soul that transmigrates from one body to another according to their karma.
- The concept of ahimsa, or non-violence, which implies that living beings should not harm or kill other living beings, as they are all interconnected and share the same life force.
- The concept of biodiversity, or the variety and richness of life forms, which implies that living beings should respect and protect the natural environment and its resources.
- The concept of evolution, or the gradual change and adaptation of living beings over time, which implies that living beings have a common origin and share some characteristics .
- The concept of genetics, or the inheritance of traits from parents to offspring, which implies that living beings have a unique identity and variation

Harappan Technologies in India and Ancient India

- The Harappan Civilization, also known as the Indus Valley Civilization, was one of the earliest urban cultures of the Indian subcontinent, dating from 3300 to 1300 BCE .
- The Harappans developed various technologies and innovations in different fields, such as:
 - **Metallurgy:** They used copper, bronze, lead, and tin to make tools, weapons, ornaments, and vessels. They also knew how to alloy copper and tin to make bronze, which was harder and more durable than copper .
 - **Standardized weights and measures:** They used a decimal system of weights based on a unit of 1.32 grams, and a system of measures based on a unit of 1.32 meters. They also used a scale with a balance and graduated rods for measuring length and mass .
 - **Seal carving:** They made seals of steatite, a soft stone, and engraved them with various motifs, such as animals, plants, and symbols. The seals were used for stamping clay tablets or sealing goods and containers. Some seals also had inscriptions in an undeciphered script .
 - **Hydraulic engineering:** They built sophisticated systems of water management, such as wells, reservoirs, canals, drains, and baths.

They also used bricks of uniform size and shape to construct buildings and walls. They had a good knowledge of geometry and town planning, as evident from the layout of their cities .

- The Harappan technologies reflect their advanced level of civilization and their adaptation to their environment and needs. They also influenced the later cultures of India and beyond.

Water Management in India and Ancient India

Water is a vital resource for human existence and development. India has a rich and diverse history of water management, dating back to the ancient civilizations of Harappa and Vedic India. Some of the key aspects of water management in India and ancient India are:

- **Hydrologic cycle:** The ancient Indians had a good understanding of the hydrologic cycle, which is the movement of water between the atmosphere, land, and oceans. They recognized the importance of rainfall, evaporation, transpiration, infiltration, runoff, and groundwater recharge in maintaining the water balance. They also observed the seasonal and spatial variations of water availability and scarcity, and devised methods to cope with them.
- **Hydraulic structures:** The ancient Indians built various types of hydraulic structures, such as wells, tanks, canals, dams, reservoirs, and stepwells, to store, distribute, and utilize water for various purposes. Some of these structures are still in use today, and are examples of engineering marvels and architectural beauty. Some of the famous hydraulic structures in ancient India are the Great Bath of Mohenjo-daro, the Grand Anicut of Kaveri, the Rani ki Vav of Patan, and the Chand Baori of Abhaneri .
- **Water treatment:** The ancient Indians also had knowledge of water treatment, which is the process of improving the quality of water for drinking, irrigation, or other uses. They used natural materials, such as brass, tulsi, vetiver, and drumsticks, to purify water and reduce contaminants, such as fluoride, bacteria, and sediments. They also practiced water conservation, such as rainwater harvesting, groundwater recharge, and recycling of wastewater .
- **Water governance:** The ancient Indians also had a system of water governance, which is the set of rules, institutions, and practices that regulate the use and management of water resources. They had a concept of water as a common good, and a duty to protect and share it with others. They also had a hierarchy of water rights, based on the source, purpose, and quantity of water. They also had a system of water taxation, water disputes resolution, and water ethics, based on the principles of dharma, karma, and ahimsa.

Textile Technology in India and Ancient India

- Textile technology is the art and science of producing fabrics from natural or synthetic materials, such as cotton, silk, wool, or polyester.
- India has a long and rich history of textile production and use, dating back to prehistoric times. India was one of the first countries to cultivate cotton and weave it into cloth, and also developed techniques of dyeing, printing, and embroidery.
- Some of the main features of textile technology in India and ancient India are:
 - Cotton: India was the first nation to produce cotton fibre and fabric, as early as 4000 BC . Indian cotton was prized for its whiteness and fineness, and was exported to many countries, such as Greece, Rome, Egypt, and China. India also invented the spinning wheel, which improved the speed and quality of cotton spinning.
 - Silk: India was one of the major producers and consumers of silk, especially in the eastern and southern regions. India developed various types of silk, such as mulberry, tussar, eri, and muga, and also introduced innovations such as brocade, ikat, and patola . Indian silk was also in high demand in foreign markets, and was part of the famous Silk Road trade network.
 - Wool: India was also proficient in wool production and weaving, especially in the northern and western regions. India produced various kinds of wool, such as pashmina, shawl, and carpet wool, and also used techniques such as felting, knotting, and embroidery . Indian woolen products were also popular in other countries, such as Persia, Central Asia, and Europe.
 - Dyeing and Printing: India was renowned for its skill and creativity in dyeing and printing fabrics, using natural dyes from plants, animals, and minerals. India developed various methods of dyeing, such as tie-and-dye, batik, block printing, and resist dyeing, and also used motifs and patterns inspired by nature, religion, and culture . Indian dyed and printed fabrics were admired and imitated by other civilizations, such as the Romans, the Arabs, and the British.
 - Embroidery: India was also a master of embroidery, the art of decorating fabrics with needle and thread. India used various types of embroidery, such as zari, zardozi, chikankari, kantha, phulkari, and kasuti, and also embellished fabrics with beads, sequins, mirrors, and pearls . Indian embroidery was a symbol of status, wealth, and beauty, and was also used for religious and ceremonial purposes.

Writing Technology in India and Ancient India

- Writing technology refers to the tools and methods used to create, preserve, and transmit written texts.

- India has a rich and diverse history of writing technology, spanning from the ancient Indus Valley civilization to the modern digital era.
- Some of the main aspects of writing technology in India and ancient India are:
 - Writing systems: India has developed and used various writing systems, such as the syllabic Kharosthi and semialphabetic Brahmi scripts of ancient India, the Devanagari script of Sanskrit and Hindi, the Perso-Arabic script of Urdu, and the many regional scripts of other languages. India also has a tradition of oral literature, which is transmitted through memorization and recitation.
 - Writing materials: India has used various materials for writing, such as stone, metal, clay, palm leaves, birch bark, paper, and cloth. Stone was the principal writing material in ancient India, as it was durable and widely available. Metal was used for inscriptions on coins, seals, and statues. Clay was used for making tablets and seals, especially in the Indus Valley civilization. Palm leaves and birch bark were used for making manuscripts, which were bound with cords and stored in wooden boxes. Paper was introduced to India by the Arabs in the 10th century CE, and cloth was used for making banners and scrolls.
 - Writing instruments: India has used various instruments for writing, such as styluses, pens, brushes, and keyboards. Styluses were used for engraving on stone, metal, and clay. Pens were made from reeds, bamboo, or feathers, and dipped in ink made from plant or animal sources. Brushes were used for painting on cloth or paper. Keyboards were used for typing on typewriters, computers, and mobile devices.
 - Writing technologies: India has adopted and innovated various technologies for writing, such as printing, lithography, photography, telegraphy, and digital media. Printing was introduced to India by the Europeans in the 16th century CE, and later developed by Indian printers using wooden or metal blocks. Lithography was a cheaper and faster method of printing, using stone or metal plates. Photography was used for capturing and reproducing images of texts, such as manuscripts, inscriptions, and newspapers. Telegraphy was used for transmitting messages in Morse code, using electric wires or radio waves. Digital media are used for creating, storing, and sharing texts in electronic formats, such as e-books, websites, and social media.
- Writing technology in India and ancient India has influenced and been influenced by the cultural, linguistic, religious, and political diversity of the region. Writing technology has also enabled the preservation and dissemination of the rich literary heritage of India.

Pyrotechnics in India and Ancient India

- Pyrotechnics is the art and science of creating and using fireworks for entertainment, military, or signaling purposes.
- Fireworks and pyrotechnic shows existed as a form of royal entertainment in many medieval Indian kingdoms during festivals, events and special occasions like weddings .
- One of the earliest notes of pyrotechnical shows in India is made by Abdur Razzaq, the ambassador of the Timurid Sultan Shahrukh to the court of the Vijayanagar king Devaraya II in 1443. He wrote that he witnessed a “wonderful firework” that was “like a fountain of fire” and “a great marvel”.
- Manufacturing formulas for fireworks describing pyrotechnic mixtures are found within Kautukachintamani, a Sanskrit volume by Gajapati Prataparudradeva (1497-1539), a reputed king of Orissa. He described various types of fireworks such as rockets, wheels, fountains, snakes, and sparklers .
- Gunpowder, an essential ingredient of fire crackers, was unknown in ancient India. It was introduced by the Arabs and the Mongols in the 13th and 14th centuries. The Indian pyrotechnicians experimented with different proportions and compositions of gunpowder to create various effects and colors.
- India has a rich and diverse tradition of pyrotechnics that reflects its cultural and religious diversity. Fireworks are used to celebrate various festivals such as Diwali, Holi, Dussehra, Eid, Christmas, and New Year. They are also used for weddings, birthdays, inaugurations, and other occasions.
- India is one of the largest producers and consumers of fireworks in the world. The major centers of fireworks production are Sivakasi in Tamil Nadu, Champahati in West Bengal, and Barpeta in Assam. The Indian fireworks industry employs over 5 lakh people and generates an annual revenue of over Rs. 6000 crore.

Trade in Ancient India

- Trade in ancient India was an important source of commerce and cultural exchange since the Harappan civilization (c. 2600-1900 BCE) .
- Trade in ancient India involved various goods such as gold, textiles, spices, precious metals, ivory, pearls, and gems .
- Trade in ancient India was facilitated by various trade routes, both land and sea, that connected India with other regions such as Mesopotamia, Egypt, China, Southeast Asia, and Rome .
- Trade in ancient India was regulated by various political and economic institutions, such as guilds, taxes, customs, weights and measures, and laws .
- Trade in ancient India had a significant impact on the development of urbanization, art, literature, religion, and science in India and beyond .

India's Dominance up to Pre-colonial Times and Ancient India

- India is one of the oldest civilizations in the world, with a history that dates back to 2500 BC, when the Indus Valley cities were just starting to grow .
- India was home to a rich cultural and religious diversity, with various empires, kingdoms, and dynasties ruling over different regions and periods of time .
- Some of the most notable empires and dynasties in ancient and medieval India were the Mauryan Empire (321-185 BC), the Gupta Empire (320-550 AD), the Chola Empire (9th-13th century AD), the Delhi Sultanate (1206-1526 AD), and the Mughal Empire (1526-1857 AD) .
- These empires and dynasties contributed to the development of India's art, architecture, literature, science, mathematics, astronomy, medicine, religion, philosophy, law, and administration .
- India also had extensive trade and cultural contacts with other regions of the world, such as Central Asia, West Asia, Southeast Asia, China, Africa, and Europe, through land and sea routes .
- India's dominance and influence in the pre-colonial times was challenged by the arrival of European powers, especially the British, who gradually established their political and economic control over most of India by the 19th century .
- India's struggle for independence from British colonial rule began in the late 19th century and culminated in the partition of India and Pakistan in 1947 .

Module 5- Cultural Heritage and Performing Arts

- Cultural heritage is the legacy of physical and intangible attributes of a group or society that are inherited from past generations, maintained in the present and bestowed for the benefit of future generations.
- Cultural heritage can be tangible, such as buildings, monuments, landscapes, books, works of art and artefacts, or intangible, such as oral traditions, languages, rituals, values, customs and skills.
- Performing arts are forms of creative expression that are performed in front of an audience, such as music, dance, theatre, opera, circus and puppetry.
- Performing arts are part of the intangible cultural heritage of many cultures and play a vital role in preserving and transmitting their history, identity, values and beliefs.
- Performing arts can also be a source of social cohesion, cultural diversity, artistic innovation and intercultural dialogue.
- Some examples of performing arts that are recognized by UNESCO as intangible cultural heritage are:

- Urtiin Duu, traditional folk long song from Mongolia, which is sung in a wide vocal range and accompanied by a horse-head fiddle.
 - Wayang puppet theatre from Indonesia, which uses intricately carved and painted puppets to narrate stories from Hindu epics or local folklore.
 - Flamenco, an artistic expression fusing song, dance and music from Spain, which reflects the diverse cultures and influences that have shaped the Andalusian region.
 - Kabuki, a classical Japanese theatre form that combines drama, music, dance and elaborate costumes and make-up to portray historical events or moral conflicts.
 - Tango, a social dance and musical genre from Argentina and Uruguay, which expresses the identity, feelings and aspirations of the urban lower classes.
- To learn more about cultural heritage and performing arts, you can:
 - Explore the UNESCO website on intangible cultural heritage, which provides information, videos and photos of various performing arts from around the world.
 - Visit museums, theatres, festivals and cultural events that showcase the performing arts of different cultures and regions.
 - Participate in workshops, classes or clubs that teach or practice performing arts, such as singing, dancing, acting or playing an instrument.
 - Read books, articles, journals or blogs that discuss the history, theory, criticism or appreciation of performing arts.
 - Watch documentaries, films, shows or online videos that feature or analyze performing arts.

Indian Architecture in Ancient India and present times

- Indian architecture is rooted in the history, culture, and religion of India. It reflects the diversity and richness of Indian civilization and its interactions with other cultures and regions.
- Indian architecture can be broadly classified into two main categories: Hindu temple architecture and Indo-Islamic architecture. These two styles have influenced each other and also developed regional variations over time.
- Hindu temple architecture is based on the principles of Vastu Shastra, a traditional system of architecture that prescribes the layout, design, and proportions of temples and other buildings. Hindu temples are usually dedicated to a specific deity and consist of a sanctum (garbhagriha), a hall (mandapa), and a tower (shikhara). Hindu temples can be further divided into Nagara, Dravidian, and Vesara styles, depending on the shape and ornamentation of the tower.
- Indo-Islamic architecture is the result of the fusion of Islamic and Indian

architectural elements. It emerged during the Delhi Sultanate (1206-1526) and reached its peak during the Mughal Empire (1526-1857). Indo-Islamic architecture is characterized by the use of arches, domes, minarets, and geometric patterns. Some of the most famous examples of Indo-Islamic architecture are the Qutub Minar, the Taj Mahal, and the Red Fort.

- In the modern period, Indian architecture has been influenced by various movements and styles, such as colonial, neo-classical, art deco, modernist, and post-modernist. Indian architects have also experimented with vernacular, sustainable, and contemporary designs, incorporating local materials, techniques, and traditions. Some of the notable modern Indian architects are Charles Correa, B.V. Doshi, Raj Rewal, and Laurie Baker.

Engineering and Architecture as Cultural Heritage of India

- India has a rich and diverse architectural heritage that reflects its history, culture, and religion.
- Indian architecture can be classified into several styles and traditions, such as Hindu temple architecture, Indo-Islamic architecture, South Indian architecture, and Indo-Saracenic architecture.
- Hindu temple architecture is characterized by the use of stone, brick, or wood, and the presence of a sanctum (garbhagriha), a tower (shikhara), and a hall (mandapa). Hindu temples are often decorated with sculptures, carvings, and paintings depicting gods, goddesses, and mythological scenes.
- Indo-Islamic architecture is the result of the fusion of Islamic and Indian elements, especially during the medieval period. It includes features such as domes, arches, minarets, and calligraphy, as well as motifs such as lotus, peacock, and elephant. Some examples of Indo-Islamic architecture are the Taj Mahal, the Qutub Minar, and the Red Fort.
- South Indian architecture is influenced by the Dravidian and Pallava cultures, and is distinguished by the use of granite, sandstone, and soapstone, and the presence of pyramidal towers (vimana), pillared halls (mandapa), and gateways (gopura). South Indian temples are often surrounded by walls and moats, and have elaborate sculptures and paintings of gods and goddesses.
- Indo-Saracenic architecture is a hybrid style that emerged during the British colonial rule, and combines elements of Islamic, Hindu, and Gothic architecture. It is characterized by the use of domes, arches, spires, and cusped windows, as well as ornamental details such as brackets, balconies, and friezes. Some examples of Indo-Saracenic architecture are the Victoria Memorial, the Gateway of India, and the Rashtrapati Bhavan.
- Indian architecture is not only a reflection of its cultural heritage, but also a source of engineering marvels that demonstrate the skill, creativity, and innovation of its builders. Some examples of engineering marvels in Indian architecture are:
 - The Brihadeeswarar Temple, which is the world's largest granite

- structure, and has a 216-feet high tower that weighs 81 tonnes and was lifted to the top without the use of cranes or pulleys.
- The Kailasa Temple, which is the world’s largest monolithic rock-cut temple, and was carved out of a single piece of basalt rock, measuring 164 feet long, 109 feet wide, and 98 feet high.
- The Konark Sun Temple, which is a massive chariot-shaped temple dedicated to the sun god, and has 12 pairs of stone wheels that are aligned with the 12 months of the year, and act as sundials.
- The Iron Pillar of Delhi, which is a 23-feet high pillar made of iron, and has resisted corrosion for over 1600 years, despite being exposed to the elements.
- The Gol Gumbaz, which is the world’s second largest dome, and has a diameter of 144 feet, and a height of 178 feet. It also has an acoustic system that allows any sound to be heard across the dome.
- Indian architecture is also a testament to its multicultural heritage, as it shows the influence of various religions, regions, and rulers that have shaped its history. Indian architecture is a cultural artifact that expresses the values, beliefs, and aspirations of its people. It is a living heritage that continues to evolve and adapt to the changing times and needs of the society.
- Indian architecture is a valuable and unique part of the world’s cultural heritage, and deserves to be preserved, protected, and promoted for the benefit of the present and future generations.

Sculptures as Cultural Heritage of India

- Sculpture is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of artistic expression in India, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1500 BCE) and continuing to the present day.
- Sculpture in India reflects the rich cultural, religious, and historical diversity of the country, as well as the influences of various regions, dynasties, and foreign invaders.
- Sculpture in India can be classified into three broad categories: stone, metal, and terracotta. Each category has its own distinctive features, techniques, and styles.
- Stone sculpture is the most prevalent and enduring form of sculpture in India, especially in temples, caves, and monuments. Stone sculpture ranges from simple carvings to elaborate and intricate reliefs and statues. Some of the famous examples of stone sculpture in India are:
 - The Ashoka Pillar at Sarnath, which has a four-lion capital that symbolizes the spread of Buddhism and the authority of Emperor Ashoka (3rd century BCE).
 - The rock-cut caves of Ajanta and Ellora, which have exquisite paintings and sculptures depicting the life of Buddha and various Hindu deities (2nd century BCE to 10th century CE).
 - The Khajuraho temples, which have erotic and sensual sculptures

- that celebrate human love and sexuality as a divine gift (10th to 12th century CE).
- The Sun Temple at Konark, which has a colossal chariot-shaped structure with intricate carvings of animals, plants, and human figures (13th century CE).
 - Metal sculpture is another important form of sculpture in India, especially in bronze and brass. Metal sculpture involves casting, hammering, and polishing techniques to create realistic and dynamic figures. Some of the famous examples of metal sculpture in India are:
 - The Dancing Girl of Mohenjo-daro, which is a small bronze figurine of a young woman with a confident and graceful posture (c. 2500 BCE).
 - The Nataraja or the Cosmic Dancer, which is a bronze statue of Lord Shiva as the lord of dance, who creates and destroys the universe with his movements (c. 10th century CE).
 - The Chola bronzes, which are a series of bronze statues of Hindu gods and goddesses, such as Vishnu, Shiva, Parvati, and Ganesha, that exhibit a high degree of realism and elegance (9th to 13th century CE).
 - The Meenakshi Amman Temple, which has a hall of thousand pillars, each with a brass sculpture of a different deity or mythological figure (16th to 18th century CE).
 - Terracotta sculpture is another form of sculpture in India, especially in rural and folk art. Terracotta sculpture involves molding and baking clay to create various shapes and forms. Terracotta sculpture is often colorful, expressive, and playful. Some of the famous examples of terracotta sculpture in India are:
 - The Mother Goddess figurines, which are small clay idols of a female deity with prominent breasts and hips, representing fertility and prosperity (c. 2500 BCE).
 - The Bankura horses, which are large clay horses with elongated necks and ears, representing strength and vitality (c. 18th century CE).
 - The Bishnupur temples, which have terracotta panels depicting scenes from Hindu epics, such as the Ramayana and the Mahabharata (17th to 18th century CE).
 - The Durga Puja idols, which are temporary clay statues of Goddess Durga and her family, that are worshipped and immersed in water during the annual festival (19th to 21st century CE).
 - Sculpture in India is a valuable cultural heritage that showcases the artistic genius, spiritual vision, and social diversity of the Indian people. Sculpture in India is also a living tradition that continues to evolve and innovate with changing times and contexts.

Seals as Cultural Heritage of India

- Seals are small objects made of stone, metal, or other materials that have a carved or engraved design on one side and are used to stamp or seal documents, containers, or other items.
- Seals have been used in India since ancient times, especially during the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900 BCE), which was one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are mostly square or rectangular in shape, and measure about 2-3 cm on each side. They are made of steatite, a soft stone that can be easily carved, and coated with alkali and baked to make them harder and more durable.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization usually depict an animal, such as a bull, a buffalo, a rhinoceros, an elephant, a tiger, or a unicorn, along with a few symbols or glyphs that are part of the undeciphered Indus script. The animal may represent a deity, a clan, a trade, or a region. The symbols may indicate the owner, the purpose, or the content of the seal.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization were used for various purposes, such as sealing clay vessels, bales of goods, or wooden doors, to indicate ownership, authenticity, or security. They were also used as amulets, tokens, or badges of identity. Some seals may have been used for ritual or ceremonial purposes, such as offering to a god or goddess.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are important sources of information about the culture, society, economy, religion, and art of this ancient civilization. They show the diversity and sophistication of the Indus people, their knowledge of animals and plants, their trade and exchange networks, and their beliefs and practices.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are also part of the cultural heritage of India, as they reflect the continuity and diversity of Indian civilization. They are symbols of the ancient roots and achievements of Indian culture, and they inspire curiosity and admiration for the past. They are also objects of artistic and aesthetic value, as they display the skill and creativity of the Indus craftsmen.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are preserved and displayed in various museums and institutions in India and abroad, such as the National Museum in Delhi, the Archaeological Survey of India, the British Museum, and the Metropolitan Museum of Art. They are also studied and researched by scholars and enthusiasts who seek to understand and decipher the Indus script and culture.

Coins as Cultural Heritage of India

- Coins are one of the most important sources of information about the history, culture, religion, economy, and politics of ancient and medieval India.
- Coins reflect the artistic skills, technological innovations, political aspira-

tions, and religious beliefs of the people who minted and used them.

- Coins also provide evidence of trade, commerce, and cultural contacts between India and other regions of the world.
- The origin of coinage in India can be traced back to the first millennium BCE, when punch-marked coins made of silver and copper were used as a medium of exchange.
- These coins were called karshapanas or panas, and were issued by various janapadas or republics that existed in northern India.
- The earliest coins were irregular in shape and size, and had symbols or marks punched on them by dies or stamps.
- Some of the common symbols were sun, moon, star, tree, elephant, bull, lion, fish, etc.
- The punch-marked coins were followed by cast coins, which were made by pouring molten metal into moulds.
- These coins were more regular in shape and size, and had inscriptions or legends on them.
- Some of the cast coins were issued by the Mauryan empire, which was the first imperial power in India.
- The Mauryan coins had the symbol of a lion or an elephant on one side, and the name of the king or the mint on the other side.
- The Mauryan coins also had the symbol of a chakra or a wheel, which represented the concept of dharma or law and order.
- The cast coins were also issued by the Indo-Greek, Indo-Scythian, and Indo-Parthian rulers, who invaded and ruled parts of north-western India from the 2nd century BCE to the 2nd century CE.
- These coins had bilingual legends in Greek and Kharoshthi or Brahmi scripts, and depicted the portraits and symbols of the foreign rulers and their deities.
- Some of the Indo-Greek coins also showed the images of Indian gods and goddesses, such as Shiva, Lakshmi, Vasudeva, etc.
- The cast coins were replaced by die-struck coins, which were made by striking a metal blank with a pair of dies or punches.
- These coins were more refined and artistic, and had more elaborate designs and legends on them.
- Some of the die-struck coins were issued by the Kushan empire, which ruled over northern India and Central Asia from the 1st to the 3rd century CE.
- The Kushan coins had the portraits and names of the Kushan kings on one side, and the images and names of various gods and goddesses on the other side.
- The Kushan coins also had legends in Greek, Kharoshthi, Brahmi, and Bactrian scripts, and showed the influence of Greek, Roman, Iranian, and Indian cultures.
- The Kushan coins were followed by the Gupta coins, which were issued by the Gupta dynasty, which is considered as the golden age of Indian history and culture.

- The Gupta coins had the portraits and names of the Gupta kings on one side, and the images and names of Hindu gods and goddesses on the other side.
- The Gupta coins also had legends in Sanskrit and Brahmi scripts, and depicted the achievements and attributes of the Gupta rulers and their patronage of arts, sciences, and religions.
- The Gupta coins were the most beautiful and sophisticated coins of ancient India, and influenced the coinage of later dynasties and kingdoms.
- The coinage of India continued to evolve and diversify in the medieval period, when various regional powers and foreign invaders ruled over different parts of the country.
- Some of the prominent coin-issuing dynasties and kingdoms of medieval India were the Satavahanas, the Pallavas, the Chalukyas, the Rashtrakutas, the Cholas, the Pandyas, the Hoysalas, the Vijayanagara empire, the Delhi Sultanate, the Bahmani kingdom, the Deccan Sultanates, the Mughal empire, the Maratha empire, the Sikh empire, etc.
- The coinage of medieval India reflected the diversity and complexity of the political, social, cultural, and religious scenario of the country.
- The coins of medieval India were made of various metals, such as gold, silver, copper, bronze, lead, tin, etc.
- The coins of medieval India had various shapes, such as circular, square, rectangular, hexagonal, octagonal

Pottery as Cultural Heritage of India

- Pottery is one of the most ancient and tangible forms of Indian art, dating back to the prehistoric times .
- Pottery reflects the cultural diversity and richness of India, as different regions have their own styles, techniques, motifs and colours of pottery .
- Pottery is also a functional and utilitarian craft, as it is used for various purposes such as cooking, storing, serving, decorating and religious rituals .
- Pottery is a living tradition that is still practiced extensively in India, especially in rural areas, where it is a source of livelihood and identity for many potters .
- Pottery is a valuable source of information for studying the history, society, economy, religion and culture of India, as it reveals the influences, interactions and innovations of various periods and regions .

Puppetry as Cultural Heritage of India

Puppetry is an ancient and diverse art form that has been used for entertainment, education, and cultural expression in India for centuries. Puppetry is also a living tradition that adapts to changing times and audiences. Here are some points to learn about puppetry as a cultural heritage of India:

- Puppetry is a form of theatre that involves manipulating puppets, which

are figures made of wood, cloth, leather, or other materials, to create stories and scenes. Puppets can be controlled by strings, rods, wires, gloves, or shadows.

- Puppetry is one of the oldest forms of communication and storytelling in India, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1500 BCE). Puppetry is also mentioned in ancient texts such as the Mahabharata, the Ramayana, and the Natyashastra.
- Puppetry is a rich and diverse cultural heritage of India, with many regional genres and styles. Some of the major types of puppetry in India are:
 - String puppets, also known as marionettes, which are controlled by strings attached to their limbs and head. Some examples of string puppetry are kathputli from Rajasthan, gombeyatta from Karnataka, bommalattam from Tamil Nadu, and putul nach from West Bengal.
 - Rod puppets, which are controlled by rods attached to their limbs and head. Some examples of rod puppetry are yampuri from Bihar, kundhei from Odisha, and pavakoothu from Kerala.
 - Glove puppets, also known as hand puppets, which are controlled by the puppeteer's hand inside the puppet. Some examples of glove puppetry are chamadyache bahulya from Maharashtra, pavai koothu from Tamil Nadu, and glove jamura from Uttar Pradesh.
 - Shadow puppets, which are flat cut-out figures that are projected on a screen by a light source behind them. Some examples of shadow puppetry are tholu bommalata from Andhra Pradesh, togaru bommalata from Karnataka, tholpavakoothu from Kerala, and ravanachaya from Odisha.
- Puppetry in India is not only a form of entertainment, but also a medium of education, social awareness, and cultural preservation. Puppetry is used to convey moral lessons, historical events, folk tales, myths, legends, and religious stories. Puppetry is also used to address contemporary issues such as health, environment, gender, and human rights.
- Puppetry in India is also a thriving contemporary art form that incorporates modern techniques, themes, and media. Puppetry is influenced by various forms of theatre, dance, music, and cinema, and also incorporates elements such as animation, digital technology, and multimedia. Puppetry is also a collaborative and interdisciplinary art form that involves various artists, such as puppeteers, writers, directors, designers, musicians, and actors.
- Puppetry in India is a valuable and vibrant cultural heritage that reflects the diversity, creativity, and identity of the Indian people. Puppetry is also a living and evolving art form that responds to the changing needs and preferences of the society. Puppetry is a unique and universal language that can communicate across cultures, ages, and backgrounds.

Dance as Cultural Heritage of India

- Dance is an ancient and celebrated cultural tradition in India that reflects the diversity, history and beliefs of its people .
- Dance in India can be classified into two main categories: classical and folk .
- Classical dance forms are based on the ancient texts of Natya Shastra and Abhinaya Darpana, which prescribe the rules of movement, expression, music and costumes.
- The Sangeet Natak Academy recognises eight classical dance forms in India, namely, Bharatnatyam, Kathak, Kuchipudi, Kathakali, Odissi, Mohiniyattam, Manipuri and Satriya.
- Each classical dance form has its own distinctive style, origin, theme and repertoire, but they all share some common elements such as the use of mudras (hand gestures), abhinaya (facial expressions), nritya (pure dance) and natya (dramatic dance).
- Folk dance forms are more regional and spontaneous, reflecting the local customs, festivals, traditions and lifestyles of the people.
- Folk dances are usually performed in groups, with simple costumes and props, and often accompanied by folk songs and music.
- Some of the popular folk dances of India are Bhangra, Garba, Dandiya, Bihu, Lavani, Chhau, Ghoomar, Kalbelia and Dumhal.
- Dance in India is not only a form of entertainment, but also a way of expressing devotion, celebrating life, preserving culture and promoting social harmony .

Music as Cultural Heritage of India

- Music is an integral part of the cultural diversity of India. It reflects the rich historical and religious influences that have shaped the country's civilization for millennia .
- Music of India can be broadly classified into two main traditions: Indian classical music and Indian folk music .
- Indian classical music is based on the concepts of raga (melodic framework) and tala (rhythmic cycle). It is further divided into two styles: Carnatic music, which is prevalent in South India, and Hindustani music, which is dominant in North India .
- Indian folk music is diverse and varied, reflecting the regional and linguistic differences of the country. It includes genres such as bhangra, lavani, dandiya, baul, qawwali, bhajan, and ghazal. It is often associated with festivals, rituals, and social occasions .
- Indian music has also been influenced by and has influenced other musical traditions, such as Persian, Arabic, Turkish, Central Asian, European, and American music. It has given rise to popular genres such as filmi (Bollywood music), Indi-pop, rock, and fusion .
- Indian music is a living and evolving art form that continues to express

the creativity, diversity, and heritage of the Indian people .

Theatre as Cultural Heritage of India

- Theatre is a form of performing art that involves actors, dialogue, music, dance, and spectacle to create a dramatic representation of a story or a theme.
- Theatre in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic period (around 1500 BCE), when rituals and hymns were performed as a part of religious ceremonies.
- The earliest text on theatre in India is the Natya Shastra, written by Bharata Muni around 500 BCE. It is a comprehensive treatise on the theory and practice of theatre, covering aspects such as dramaturgy, aesthetics, stagecraft, genres, styles, and emotions.
- The Natya Shastra influenced the development of various forms of classical theatre in India, such as Sanskrit drama, which flourished from the 2nd century BCE to the 10th century CE. Some of the famous playwrights of Sanskrit drama were Kalidasa, Bhasa, Shudraka, and Vishakhadatta.
- Sanskrit drama was performed in specially designed theatres called natyashala, which followed the guidelines of the Natya Shastra. The performances were patronized by kings, nobles, and wealthy patrons, and were attended by elite audiences.
- Along with Sanskrit drama, India also has a rich tradition of folk theatre, which emerged from the local cultures and communities of different regions. Folk theatre is a composite art form that incorporates elements of music, dance, mime, puppetry, masks, and costumes. Folk theatre is more spontaneous, interactive, and participatory than classical theatre, and reflects the social, political, and religious issues of the people.
- Some of the prominent forms of folk theatre in India are Jatra (Bengal), Nautanki (Uttar Pradesh), Tamasha (Maharashtra), Bhavai (Gujarat), Yakshagana (Karnataka), Koodiyattam (Kerala), and Bhaona (Assam). These forms have their own distinct features, conventions, and styles, and are performed in various languages and dialects.
- Folk theatre in India has been a vital medium of cultural expression and communication, and has contributed to the preservation and transmission of the intangible heritage of India. Some forms of folk theatre, such as Koodiyattam, have been recognized by UNESCO as a Masterpiece of the Oral and Intangible Heritage of Humanity.
- Theatre in India underwent a major transformation in the colonial and post-colonial periods, when it was influenced by the Western theatre and the nationalist movement. Modern Indian theatre emerged as a result of the interaction between the traditional and the contemporary, and the fusion of the indigenous and the foreign.
- Modern Indian theatre experimented with new themes, forms, techniques, and languages, and addressed the issues of identity, culture, society, and politics. Some of the pioneers of modern Indian theatre were

Rabindranath Tagore, Mohan Rakesh, Vijay Tendulkar, Girish Karnad, Badal Sircar, and Mahesh Dattani.

- Modern Indian theatre also witnessed the emergence of various movements and groups, such as the Indian People's Theatre Association (IPTA), the Theatre of the Absurd, the Theatre of the Roots, the Street Theatre, and the Theatre of Protest. These movements and groups challenged the conventions and norms of theatre, and used theatre as a tool of social change and awareness.
- Theatre in India today is a diverse and dynamic field, with a variety of forms, genres, styles, and languages. Theatre in India is also a vibrant and vital part of the cultural heritage of India, as it reflects the diversity, creativity, and dynamism of the Indian people.

Drama as Cultural Heritage of India

- Drama is a form of performing arts, where stories are enacted by the utilisation of dialogue, music, gesture, dance, and sound.
- Drama is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of cultural expression in India, dating back to the ancient Vedic period .
- Drama in India has been influenced by various religious, social, and linguistic traditions, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, Islam, and regional languages.
- Drama in India has also been shaped by various classical theatre traditions, such as Sanskrit theatre, folk theatre, and Urdu theatre .
- Sanskrit theatre is the earliest existing form of drama and theatre in India, based on the works of Bharata, the father of Indian drama . Sanskrit theatre is known for its elaborate and stylized conventions, such as the use of masks, costumes, gestures, and music.
- Folk theatre is a diverse and popular form of drama in India, reflecting the local cultures, beliefs, and customs of different regions. Folk theatre is characterized by its spontaneity, improvisation, humor, and social commentary. Some examples of folk theatre are Nautanki, Tamasha, Jatra, and Bhavai.
- Urdu theatre is a modern form of drama in India, influenced by the Persian and Mughal cultures, as well as the British colonial rule. Urdu theatre is known for its realistic and romantic themes, as well as its use of poetry, music, and dance. Some examples of Urdu theatre are Inder Sabha, Parsi theatre, and Bombay cinema.
- Drama in India is a rich and vibrant cultural heritage, that showcases the diversity, creativity, and history of the Indian people. Drama in India is also a medium of communication, education, and social change, that reflects the contemporary issues and challenges of the Indian society.

Painting as Cultural Heritage of India

- Painting is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of art in India, dating back to prehistoric times.
- Painting reflects the cultural, religious, and political aspects of Indian society, as well as the aesthetic and creative expressions of the artists.
- Painting is also a medium of preserving and transmitting the intangible cultural heritage of India, such as songs, dances, rituals, and folklore.
- Some of the major types of Indian paintings are:
 - **Madhubani painting:** A folk art form from Bihar, characterized by intricate patterns, geometric shapes, and bright colors. The themes are usually derived from Hindu mythology, nature, and social events. Madhubani painting is done on walls, paper, cloth, or canvas using natural dyes and brushes made of bamboo or cotton.
 - **Warli painting:** A tribal art form from Maharashtra, characterized by simple and monochromatic figures and symbols. The themes are usually related to the daily life, festivals, and beliefs of the Warli tribe. Warli painting is done on walls or paper using rice paste or white paint.
 - **Mural painting:** A large-scale painting done on walls, ceilings, or other architectural surfaces. Mural painting has a long history in India, dating back to the ancient caves of Ajanta and Ellora. The themes are usually religious, historical, or mythological. Mural painting is done using various techniques and materials, such as fresco, tempera, oil, or acrylic.
 - **Miniature painting:** A small-scale painting done on paper, cloth, ivory, or wood. Miniature painting flourished in India from the 10th to the 19th century, under the patronage of various rulers and courts. The themes are usually related to the literature, poetry, music, and romance of the time. Miniature painting is done using fine brushes and pigments, often with gold and silver embellishments.
 - **Modern painting:** A broad term that encompasses the various styles and movements of painting that emerged in India in the 20th and 21st centuries. Modern painting reflects the influences of Western art, as well as the social and political changes in India. The themes are usually diverse, ranging from realism to abstraction, from nationalism to globalism, from tradition to innovation. Modern painting is done using various media and techniques, such as oil, watercolor, acrylic, collage, or digital.

Martial Arts Traditions of India

- Martial arts are codified systems and traditions of combat practices, which are practised for a variety of reasons – self-defence, competition, physical

health and fitness, entertainment, as well as mental, physical, and spiritual development.

- India has an ancient tradition in diverse martial arts, dating back to the Vedic period and influenced by the geography, culture, and history of the subcontinent.
- Some of the most famous martial arts in India are :
 - Kalaripayattu: Often known as the ‘Mother Of All Martial Arts’, this 3000-year old art form originating from Kerala, draws inspiration from the raw power, swift movements and sinuous strength of majestic animals – the lion, tiger, elephant, wild boar, snake and crocodile. It involves strikes, kicks, grappling, weaponry, and healing methods.
 - Silambam: A weapon-based martial art from Tamil Nadu, that uses a bamboo staff as the primary weapon, along with other weapons such as swords, daggers, and spears. It also incorporates animal-based movements and acrobatic skills.
 - Gatka: A Sikh martial art that originated in Punjab, that focuses on the use of swords, sticks, and shields. It is also known for its rhythmic and coordinated movements, often performed to the beat of a drum.
 - Thang-Ta: A Manipuri martial art that combines sword and spear techniques, as well as unarmed combat. It is also known as Huyen Lallong, which means the art of the sword and the spear. It is a powerful yet gracefully complex technique that reflects the culture and history of Manipur.
 - Kushti: A form of traditional wrestling that originated in the Mughal era, when the local sport of Malla Yuddha was combined with the Persian sport of Varzesh-e-Bastani. It involves grappling, throws, locks, and pins, and is practised on a clay or dirt pit.
 - Lathi: One of the oldest armed martial arts in India, that uses a bamboo or wooden stick as the main weapon. It is also regarded as one of the earliest martial arts weapons in the world. It is mainly practised in rural areas of northern and eastern India, and is used for self-defence and law enforcement.
 - Sqay: A Kashmiri martial art that uses a sword and a shield, as well as kicks and punches. It is also known as the art of the lion, and is influenced by the Buddhist and Hindu traditions of the region. It is a graceful and elegant art that requires agility and balance.
 - Mardani Khel: A Marathi martial art that originated in the 17th century, during the reign of Shivaji Maharaj. It involves the use of various weapons, such as swords, daggers, axes, and spears, as well as unarmed combat. It is a fierce and aggressive art that reflects the spirit of the Maratha warriors.

Fairs and Festivals as Cultural Heritage of India

- India is a land of diverse cultures, religions, languages, and traditions. It is also a land of vibrant celebrations, where various fairs and festivals are held throughout the year to mark important occasions, commemorate historical events, honor deities, express gratitude, and showcase the rich and varied art and craft of the country.
- Fairs and festivals in India reflect the cultural diversity and heritage of India. They are an integral part of the social and religious life of the people. They also provide an opportunity for people to interact, exchange ideas, and enjoy the spirit of unity and harmony.
- Some of the most famous fairs and festivals of India are:
 - **Makar Sankranti:** This is a harvest festival celebrated in January, when the sun enters the zodiac sign of Capricorn. It is also known as Pongal in South India, Maghi in Punjab, Uttarayan in Gujarat, and Bihu in Assam. People fly kites, light bonfires, prepare special dishes, and worship the sun god on this day .
 - **Holi:** This is the festival of colors, celebrated in March, to mark the arrival of spring and the victory of good over evil. People smear each other with colored powder and water, play with water guns, and dance and sing to the tunes of folk songs. Holi also commemorates the legend of Prahlad and Holika, and the love of Radha and Krishna.
 - **Diwali:** This is the festival of lights, celebrated in October or November, to mark the return of Lord Rama to Ayodhya after defeating Ravana. People decorate their homes with lamps, candles, and rangoli, worship Goddess Lakshmi and Lord Ganesha, exchange gifts and sweets, and burst firecrackers on this day. Diwali also symbolizes the triumph of light over darkness, and knowledge over ignorance.
 - **Dussehra:** This is the festival of victory, celebrated in September or October, to mark the end of the nine-day Navratri festival. People worship Goddess Durga, who killed the demon Mahishasura, and Lord Rama, who killed Ravana. People also burn effigies of Ravana, Kumbhakarna, and Meghnad, and watch theatrical performances of the Ramayana on this day. Dussehra also signifies the power of good over evil.
 - **Pushkar Mela:** This is the largest camel fair in the world, held in November, in the holy town of Pushkar in Rajasthan. Thousands of camels, horses, and cattle are traded, decorated, and raced at this fair. People also take a dip in the sacred Pushkar lake, visit the Brahma temple, and enjoy the cultural programs, competitions, and exhibitions at this fair .
 - **Jaisalmer Desert Festival:** This is a three-day festival, held in February, in the golden city of Jaisalmer in Rajasthan. It showcases the rich and colorful culture of the desert, with folk dances, music,

- puppet shows, camel races, turban tying contests, and firework displays. People also witness the spectacular sight of the sand dunes, the majestic forts, and the camel safaris at this festival.
- **Goa Carnival:** This is a four-day festival, held in February or March, in the coastal state of Goa. It is a legacy of the Portuguese rule, and celebrates the spirit of fun and frolic. People dress up in colorful costumes, masks, and feathers, and participate in parades, floats, dances, and parties. People also enjoy the delicious Goan cuisine, especially the seafood, at this festival .
 - **Konark Dance Festival:** This is a five-day festival, held in December, in the ancient city of Konark in Odisha. It is a tribute to the Sun Temple, a UNESCO World Heritage Site, and showcases the classical dance forms of India, such as Odissi, Bharatanatyam, Kathak, Kuchipudi, and Manipuri. People also admire the exquisite architecture, sculpture, and art of the temple, and visit the nearby Chandrabhaga beach at this festival .
- These are some of the examples of the fairs and festivals that represent the cultural heritage of India. There are

Current developments in Arts and Culture in India

- India has a rich and diverse cultural heritage that includes various forms of art, music, dance, theatre, folk traditions, performing arts, rites and rituals, paintings, festivals and writings.
- India has 37 world heritage sites that showcase the country's historical and architectural legacy.
- India has a vibrant film industry that produces movies in various languages and genres, reflecting the diversity and creativity of the Indian people.
- India has also been actively promoting its art and culture in the global arena, by nominating its cultural sites for the UNESCO World Heritage List, such as the Hoysala Temples in Karnataka, and by participating in international events and festivals, such as the Sydney WorldPride, a celebration of the LGBT community.
- India has also been fostering a culture of learning and innovation, by joining the UNESCO Global Network of Learning Cities, which aims to enhance lifelong learning opportunities for all. Three Indian cities, Thrissur and Nilambur in Kerala and Warangal in Telangana, have recently joined this network.
- India has also been preserving and documenting its intangible cultural heritage, which includes various forms of oral traditions, performing arts, social practices, knowledge and skills. The National List of Intangible Cultural Heritage of India contains 100 elements that represent the diversity and richness of India's culture.
- India has also been witnessing new trends and developments in its art and culture scene, such as the emergence of contemporary art forms, the fusion

of traditional and modern styles, the use of digital and social media platforms, and the engagement of youth and marginalized groups in cultural activities.

Indian's Cultural Contribution to the World

India is a country of diverse and rich culture, heritage and history. It has made many contributions to the world in various fields such as mathematics, architecture, medicine, language, art, religion, philosophy, literature, music, dance, cuisine, yoga, ayurveda, astronomy, chess, martial arts, and more. Some of the notable contributions of India to the world are:

- **Mathematics:** India invented the concept of zero, the decimal system, the binary system, algebra, trigonometry, geometry, calculus, and many other mathematical concepts and techniques. India also developed the place value system, the Fibonacci sequence, the Pythagorean theorem, the concept of infinity, and the concept of negative numbers .
- **Architecture:** India has a rich and diverse architectural heritage, ranging from ancient temples, palaces, forts, mosques, tombs, monuments, and caves, to modern buildings, bridges, dams, and skyscrapers. India is known for its urban planning, engineering, and artistic skills, as well as its use of materials, colors, patterns, and motifs. Some of the famous examples of Indian architecture are the Taj Mahal, the Qutub Minar, the Khajuraho temples, the Ajanta and Ellora caves, the Hampi ruins, the Konark Sun Temple, and the Lotus Temple .
- **Medicine:** India is the birthplace of Ayurveda, the ancient system of holistic medicine that uses natural herbs, minerals, and metals to treat various diseases and ailments. India also developed the concepts of surgery, anesthesia, plastic surgery, cataract surgery, dental surgery, and vaccination. India also invented the technique of inoculation, the use of cotton swabs, the use of iron to treat anemia, and the use of turmeric as an antiseptic .
- **Language:** India is home to 22 official languages and hundreds of regional languages and dialects. India also has a rich and diverse literary tradition, with works in Sanskrit, Hindi, Urdu, Bengali, Tamil, Telugu, Malayalam, Kannada, Marathi, Gujarati, and many other languages. India also influenced the development of many other languages, such as English, Persian, Arabic, Greek, Latin, and Chinese, through its words, grammar, scripts, and literature. Some of the famous examples of Indian literature are the Vedas, the Upanishads, the Ramayana, the Mahabharata, the Bhagavad Gita, the Panchatantra, the Kamasutra, and the works of Kalidasa, Rabindranath Tagore, R.K. Narayan, and Salman Rushdie .
- **Art:** India has a rich and diverse artistic heritage, with various forms of painting, sculpture, pottery, metalwork, textile, jewelry, and handicrafts. India is known for its use of colors, symbols, motifs, and themes, as well as its fusion of different styles and influences. Some of the famous examples of Indian art are the Madhubani paintings, the Tanjore

paintings, the Mughal miniatures, the Rajasthani paintings, the Pattachitra paintings, the Gandhara sculptures, the Chola bronzes, the Bidriware, the Kalamkari, the Bandhani, and the Zari .

- Religion: India is the birthplace of four major world religions: Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Sikhism. India also has a large and diverse population of followers of other religions, such as Islam, Christianity, Judaism, Zoroastrianism, and Baha'i. India also influenced the development of many other religions, such as Taoism, Confucianism, and Shintoism, through its philosophy, ethics, and practices. India also introduced the concepts of karma, reincarnation, dharma, ahimsa, nirvana, moksha, yoga, meditation, and vegetarianism to the world .
- Music and Dance: India has a rich and diverse musical and dance heritage, with various forms of classical, folk, and popular music and dance. India is known for its use of instruments, rhythms, melodies, ragas, talas, and genres, as well as its fusion

Indian Cinema as a Performing Art in India

- Indian cinema is a form of artistic expression that combines storytelling, performing arts, and science to create audio-visual narratives that reflect the culture, history, and diversity of India .
- Indian cinema has a rich and varied history that spans over a century, from the silent era to the present day, and encompasses different genres, languages, and regions.
- Indian cinema has been influenced by and has influenced other forms of performing arts in India, such as theater, music, dance, and folk arts .
- Indian cinema has also been shaped by the social, political, and economic changes that have occurred in India since its independence in 1947, and has addressed various issues and themes that are relevant to the Indian society and identity.
- Indian cinema has developed its own aesthetic principles and conventions, such as the rasa theory, which is derived from the ancient treatise on dramaturgy, the *Natyasastra*. The rasa theory posits that the aim of any artistic performance is to evoke one or more of the nine basic emotions (pathos, love, anger, humor, wonder, terror, heroism, serenity, and terror) in the audience .
- Indian cinema has also been recognized and appreciated globally for its artistic merit, cultural diversity, and commercial success, and has contributed to the promotion and preservation of the Indian heritage and values.